

SPECTRUM: A Data-Driven, Component-Level Projection Framework for 21st-Century Sea-Level Rise

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Abstract

Every centimeter of sea-level rise exposes millions more people to annual coastal flooding, yet projections of sea level come with large uncertainties. Many of the commonly used projections rely on complex models calibrated on data too sparse to adequately constrain them. Here, we construct a data-driven sea-level projection framework by calibrating parsimonious physical models for individual sea-level contributors against decades-long independent observational records. We call this framework the Sea-level Projections from Empirical Calibration of Thermodynamical, Reduced-physics Models (SPECTRUM). When forced with observed global mean surface temperatures, the calibrated components sum to match global mean sea level (GMSL) rise since 1993 as measured with satellite altimetry. Hindcasts that start in 2025 match GMSL data within error back to at least 1940 and approximately 1 °C warming, suggesting forecasting skill to the end of the 21st century. Averaged over the policy-relevant warming trajectories, and weighting the West Antarctic scenarios toward accelerating loss, our forecasts give a 55% probability of GMSL exceeding 1 meter above pre-industrial by 2100 and 4.6% of exceeding 2 meters. The dynamics of West Antarctic glaciers account for ~ 99% of the forecast variance and reveal orthogonal dimensions of sea-level risk: emissions reduction decreases median projections related to the predictable, temperature-sensitive components, but leaves the high-risk tail of the distribution largely unchanged, exposing hundreds of millions of people to accelerating sea-level risks.

1 Introduction

Every centimeter of sea-level rise exposes roughly 1.6 million more people to annual coastal flooding (*Kulp and Strauss, 2019*), and without further adaptation annual flood damages reach US\$14–18 trillion per year at 0.9–1.1 m of rise (*Jevrejeva et al., 2018*). Planning and adaptation for these risks depends on how skillfully we can predict the rate of sea-level rise. Forecasts published over four decades span a wide range of methods and outcomes, and the high-end estimates published since the Sixth Assessment Report of the Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change (AR6) span 0.6–2.0 m of rise by 2100 (*Garner et al., 2026*). Coastal planning leans on AR6 itself, which projects 0.4–0.7 m this century, but with deep uncertainty attributed to ice sheet processes not well represented in models (*Fox-Kemper et al., 2021; Hirschfeld et al., 2023*). The gaps in our understanding of ice sheet processes present significant challenges as continued warming ensures that projections of sea-level rise

will remain out of sample with respect to the modern observational record no matter the projection method. The central difficulty is therefore not building a model but calibrating it, testing it against data withheld from calibration, and reporting uncertainties in a form that separates the various sources. A recent community synthesis makes this case, calling for projections narrowed by observations and for uncertainty characterized by its structure and not only by its magnitude (*Felikson et al.*, 2025).

Sea-level projection models span a wide range of complexity, and their strengths are complementary. Process-based ice-sheet models are the most complex. They solve the equations of ice flow, deformation, and fracture, and are where competing hypotheses about mechanics of ice loss can be posed and tested (*Schoof*, 2007; *Morlighem et al.*, 2024). Their parameters, such as the basal sliding coefficient, are inferred from observations by ill-posed inverse problems in which the data constrain only a limited set of parameter directions (*Isaac et al.*, 2015; *Petra et al.*, 2014). They depart from reconstructions of historical GMSLR in hindcast (*Aschwanden et al.*, 2021), and most projections initialized in 2016 grow the Antarctic Ice Sheet through the years that overlap the satellite record, with outcomes that remain sensitive to the state a model starts from (*Fricker et al.*, 2025). At the other extreme of model complexity, extrapolations of the observed record and semi-empirical fits of the rate of GMSLR to global mean surface temperature (GMST) are transparent and anchored in the quantity being predicted (*Nerem et al.*, 2022; *Rahmstorf*, 2007; *Vermeer and Rahmstorf*, 2009; *Kopp et al.*, 2016). They track the observed record at least as well as contemporaneous process-based projections (*Rahmstorf et al.*, 2012). But they sacrifice insight into which processes are responsible for the observed trends, and the fitted relationship need not hold as individual contributors respond on different timescales (*Church et al.*, 2013). Between the extremes in model complexity sit component-level models, which separate GMSLR into its physical contributors and calibrate each one against observations, model output, or expert assessment (*Kopp et al.*, 2014; *Mengel et al.*, 2016; *Wong et al.*, 2017; *Perrette et al.*, 2013; *Nauels et al.*, 2017; *Kopp et al.*, 2023), trading spatial detail for parsimony and a direct link to data.

No one class of model can be at once the most physically detailed, the most transparent, and the most tightly constrained by data, so treating any one of them as authoritative discards what the others offer. Ordered by complexity they instead form a hierarchy, a practice long leveraged elsewhere in climate science, where ordering models from idealized to comprehensive has served understanding better than process-based models alone (*Held*, 2005; *Jeevanjee et al.*, 2017; *Maher et al.*, 2019). Each level in the hierarchy can be calibrated and tested against data before the next is trusted, giving observations the formal role in refining projections that recent assessments of ice-sheet and sea-level projection have called for (*Aschwanden et al.*, 2021; *Felikson et al.*, 2025). An extrapolation of the observed record sets a scenario-independent reference that any more elaborate model should be able to reproduce. A semi-empirical fit adds a dependence on warming and little else, which isolates that sensitivity and makes it testable on its own. A component-level model then can show whether the same sensitivity can be recovered from the separate physics of the ocean, the glaciers, and the ice sheets, each calibrated against its own observational record. A process-based model can then be used as a diagnostic to highlight which mechanisms within those contributors are responsible. Calibration and validation are then carried out within the space of models rather than against a single preferred one, and agreement between levels becomes a diagnostic in its

own right. Where the levels agree, a result rests on more than one set of assumptions, and agreement of that kind carries more weight than agreement among models that share their assumptions (*Lipscomb et al.*, 2025). Where they diverge, the divergence localizes what the data do not yet constrain and can be used to identify the observations that would provide further constraints. The simplest levels often carry the most transferable insight, because what they assume and include is small enough to state clearly, to test directly, and to be understood by those who use the model outputs (*Green and Armstrong*, 2015; *Makridakis et al.*, 2020). A hierarchy built this way complements process-based modeling rather than substituting for it.

Here we construct a data-driven, component-level forecast of 21st-century sea-level rise. Where the observational record can constrain a contributor to GMSLR, we give it a parsimonious physical model calibrated by Bayesian inference against an independent record spanning decades, among them NOAA thermosteric estimates (*Levitus et al.*, 2012), EN4 subsurface ocean temperature (*Good et al.*, 2013), Greenland outlet-glacier discharge (*Mouginot et al.*, 2019), GlaMBIE (*The GlaMBIE Team et al.*, 2025), and IMBIE-3 (*Otosaka et al.*, 2026). The remaining contributors, among them Greenland and East Antarctic surface mass balance and terrestrial water storage, are adopted from published model sensitivities and assessments (*Fettweis et al.*, 2020; *Noël et al.*, 2021; *Frieler et al.*, 2015; *Frederikse et al.*, 2020). We call the framework SPECTRUM, for Sea-level Projections from Empirical Calibration of Thermodynamical, Reduced-physics Models. Unless otherwise noted, all sea-level values in the main text are global-mean 21st-century contributions referenced to the year 2000. Throughout, emission scenarios are labeled by their approximate median end-of-century global mean surface temperature rounded to the nearest integer and referenced to the 1850-1900 (pre-industrial) mean: 2 °C (SSP1-2.6), 3 °C (SSP2-4.5), and 4 °C (SSP3-7.0).

2 A data-driven, component-level projection framework

2.1 Component models, calibration, and validation

2.1.1 Greenland Ice Sheet

The Greenland Ice Sheet (GrIS) is the largest land-ice contributor and has lost mass every year since the 1990s (*Mouginot et al.*, 2019; *Mankoff et al.*, 2021). That loss is the imbalance between solid-ice discharge and surface mass balance (SMB), where SMB is the difference between mass gained by snow accumulation and mass lost to melting.

GrIS discharge is sensitive to ocean temperature and surface melt runoff (*Straneo et al.*, 2013; *Slater et al.*, 2020; *Wood et al.*, 2021). Warm, subsurface waters thin and undercut the calving fronts of marine-terminating glaciers, driving increased calving and net terminus retreat. This effect is amplified where surface runoff drives mixing and buoyant upwelling along the calving face (*Slater and Straneo*, 2022). Surface melt also lubricates glacier beds, but that effect is generally short-lived and localized as the subglacial hydrological system evolves to accommodate changes in meltwater flux (*Schoof*, 2010; *Tedstone et al.*, 2013; *Ultee et al.*, 2022).

Focusing on the strong influence of ocean-induced melting on discharge, we approximate

the GrIS-wide discharge as

$$D = \gamma T_{\text{ocean}}(t - \delta) + r_0, \quad (1)$$

where D is the GrIS discharge in sea-level equivalent units, γ is an effective discharge sensitivity to ocean temperature, δ is the lag between distal ocean warming and ice sheet response, r_0 is the background discharge rate at the baseline ocean temperature, and T_{ocean} is the ocean temperature anomaly in the ocean waters around Greenland relative to the 1995–2005 mean. Because D is the gross discharge flux rather than an anomaly, it becomes a contribution to GMSL only when combined with SMB, whose accumulation term offsets most of the background rate r_0 . We calibrate against total GrIS discharge, integrated across the 219 marine-terminating outlet glaciers resolved in the observational record (*Mouginot et al.*, 2019) to trade spatial resolution for signal-to-noise in the data. Our goal is to capture ice-sheet scale discharge rather than the individual basins and glaciers.

The calibration is carried out on the time-integrated form of Eq. 1, which gives the cumulative contribution of GrIS discharge to GMSLR,

$$H_D(t) = \int_{t_0}^t D dt', \quad (2)$$

with γ and r_0 set constant in time. Fitting the time-integrated (cumulative) record further improves the signal-to-noise ratio, because the cumulative signal grows linearly in time while the annual errors accumulate only as its square root. It also directly constrains the total mass lost, the quantity of interest in this study.

The calibration uses the 47-year ice discharge record of *Mouginot et al.* (2019) and ocean temperatures from EN4 (v4.2.2, g10 bias correction) (*Good et al.*, 2013), averaged over 200–500 m depth, the range most relevant to Greenland’s tidewater grounding lines (*Slater et al.*, 2020), in the seas surrounding Greenland south of 80°N (58–80°N, 75–5°W). This geographic limit is set by the sparse subsurface sampling farther north (Fig. 1). Because the data are resolved annually, the lag δ is in integer-year values. We then fit (γ, r_0) by weighted least squares separately for a range of δ values, using the demeaned cumulative record. Each fit carries a penalty on the mismatch between the modeled discharge rate at the end of the time-series and the rate observed over the final decade, which keeps the calibration consistent with the present-day discharge rate. The posterior is then formed as a Gaussian mixture of the fits for each δ , with weights derived from the Bayesian Information Criterion. This procedure places 99.5% of the weight on $\delta = 5$ yr and gives posterior medians $\gamma = 0.365$ mm SLE yr^{−1} °C^{−1} (0.312–0.419 mm SLE yr^{−1} °C^{−1}) and $r_0 = 1.383$ mm SLE yr^{−1} (1.367–1.399 mm SLE yr^{−1}). The calibration target is a cumulative record, resulting in correlated errors, so we report parameter intervals from a covariance that accounts for that correlation and for the excess scatter of the residuals relative to the reported observational errors, such that reduced chi-square $\chi^2/\text{dof} = 1.8$, where χ^2 is the error-weighted sum of squared residuals. Because EN4 begins in 1970 and the selected lag is $\delta = 5$ yr, the delayed ocean forcing is undefined before 1975 and the first three years of the discharge record do not enter the fit, leaving 44 of the 47 annual observations. The degrees of freedom are then $\text{dof} = 41$, being those 44 observations less one for the demeaning of the cumulative record and two for the fitted parameters. We validate the model against a discharge time-series spanning 1986–2023 that was withheld from calibration (*Mankoff et al.*, 2021) and the time-series

from the Ice Sheet Mass Balance Intercomparison Exercise (IMBIE-3) spanning 1972–2023 (*Otosaka et al.*, 2026). The validation with *Mankoff et al.* (2021) is informative but weak because the *Mouginot et al.* (2019) calibration and *Mankoff et al.* (2021) time-series share the same underlying raw data and with independent processing methodology. The IMBIE-3 time-series is a combination of 42 independent mass balance measurements from satellite observations of glacier flow, surface elevation, and gravitational anomaly. Our model falls within error of the validation data for discharge and total mass balance (Fig. 1). The validation results suggest that our simple model, with two fitted parameters and a selected lag, captures the total contribution of GrIS discharge to GMSLR during the observational record and its sensitivity to ocean temperatures in Greenland’s peripheral waters.

The fitted $\delta = 5$ yr is an effective lag for spatially averaged forcing and we therefore do not attempt to attribute it to a single process. It lies within the range of timescales spanned by the ocean-to-ice pathway, from exchange between the continental shelf and fjord interiors through the terminus response to undercutting and the inland transmission of retreat to the flux gates at which discharge is measured (*Straneo and Heimbach*, 2013; *Wood et al.*, 2021; *Robel et al.*, 2018). Because T_{ocean} is averaged over Greenland’s peripheral waters, δ also absorbs the time required for a warming anomaly to become representative of conditions at outlet glaciers distributed around the ice sheet.

To our knowledge, no published study reports a Greenland-wide sensitivity of discharge rate to ocean temperature, so we derive a simple dimensional scaling to contextualize the inferred value $\gamma = 0.365 \text{ mm SLE yr}^{-1} \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}^{-1}$. For a single outlet glacier i , the submarine melt rate scales approximately linearly with ocean thermal forcing, the ocean temperature above the in situ freezing point T_{ocean} , such that

$$\Delta \dot{m}_i = \kappa_i T_{\text{ocean}}, \quad (3)$$

where κ_i is the melt sensitivity to thermal forcing averaged over the submerged calving face. Plume parameterizations calibrated against Greenland observations (*Xu et al.*, 2013; *Rignot et al.*, 2016; *Slater and Straneo*, 2022) give a maximum melt sensitivity near the grounding line of $90\text{--}260 \text{ m yr}^{-1} \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}^{-1}$. The face-averaged rate is two to three times smaller (*Wood et al.*, 2021). We therefore take $\kappa = 36\text{--}104 \text{ m yr}^{-1} \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}^{-1}$, with median $60 \text{ m yr}^{-1} \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}^{-1}$. Submarine melt thins and undercuts the terminus, triggering calving and grounding-line retreat so that the total ice flux perturbation is a factor μ times the direct submarine melt flux. For Greenland’s tidewater glaciers, observations and models suggest $\mu = 3\text{--}10$ (*Enderlin and Howat*, 2013; *Wood et al.*, 2021). The flux perturbation from a single glacier with submerged calving-front area A_f is then

$$\Delta \dot{Q}_i = \mu_i \rho_{\text{ice}} A_{f,i} \kappa_i T_{\text{ocean}}, \quad (4)$$

where $\rho_{\text{ice}} = 900 \text{ kg m}^{-3}$ is the mass density of ice. Summing over Greenland’s $N = 219$ marine-terminating outlets (*Mouginot et al.*, 2019) we approximate the scale of γ as

$$\tilde{\gamma} \sim \frac{1}{A_{\text{ocean}} \rho_{fw} T_{\text{ocean}}} \sum_{i=1}^N \Delta \dot{Q}_i, \quad (5)$$

where $A_{\text{ocean}} = 3.625 \times 10^{14} \text{ m}^2$ is the ocean area and $\rho_{fw} = 1000 \text{ kg m}^{-3}$ is the density of freshwater, which converts added ice mass to sea-level equivalent under the convention

1 mm SLE = 362.5 Gt used throughout this study. Submerged calving-front areas of 0.9–2.7 km² are reported for five West Greenland outlets (*Rignot et al.*, 2016). Evaluating Eq. 5 across the full parameter ranges gives

$$\tilde{\gamma} = 0.05\text{--}1.5 \text{ mm SLE yr}^{-1} \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}^{-1}, \quad (6)$$

which contains our calibrated $\gamma = 0.365 \text{ mm SLE yr}^{-1} \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}^{-1}$. We report Eq. 6 as a rough order-of-magnitude check on the inferred value intended for intuition building. The range spans a factor of 30 because it is the product of four quantities that are not measured in aggregate, and the factorization $\sum_i \mu_i A_{f,i} \kappa_i \approx N \bar{\mu} \bar{A}_f \bar{\kappa}$ assumes these are uncorrelated across outlets, whereas the deepest and widest fronts occupy the warmest fjords. Finally, the calibrated γ is an effective sensitivity that absorbs the covarying atmospheric pathway because increased subglacial runoff amplifies plume-driven melting alongside ocean warming.

2.1.2 Thermosteric

The ocean is the dominant reservoir for the excess heat accumulated by the climate system (*Cheng et al.*, 2017), and the resulting expansion – the thermosteric contribution – is currently the largest single contributor to observed sea level rise (*Frederikse et al.*, 2020). Both heat exchange between ocean and atmosphere and ocean dynamics set the structure of a simple model of the thermosteric effect. Put simply, the ocean warms with a delay relative to the atmosphere, heat enters at the sea surface and is carried downward by turbulent mixing and by the overturning circulation, causing temperature of the interior to reflect the history of surface warming. Downward transfer spans a wide range of timescales. The upper few hundred meters exchange heat with the atmosphere over years to decades, whereas water below the thermocline is renewed over centuries. We therefore represent the ocean as two layers, a fast upper layer coupled to the atmosphere and a slow deep layer coupled only to the upper layer, following the structure of *Geoffroy et al.* (2013). This structure reproduces both the lag between surface warming and expansion and the continued expansion that follows a stabilization of surface temperature, where the deep layer draws heat from the upper layer after the upper layer has equilibrated.

Let us first consider an upper layer of thickness $h_u = 700$ m warmed by $\Delta\theta(z, t)$, which raises steric height of the ocean over time as

$$H_u = \int_0^{h_u} \alpha_{sw} \Delta\theta dz, \quad (7)$$

where $\alpha_{sw}(z)$ is the thermal expansion coefficient of seawater, which is depth dependent due to its temperature dependence. The temperature anomaly profile is defined as $\Delta\theta = S_u \varphi$, where $S_u(t)$ is the amplitude of the anomaly and $\varphi(z)$ is a dimensionless shape factor. Expanding $\alpha_{sw}(z) = \alpha_{0sw}(z) + \alpha'_{sw} \Delta\theta$, with $\alpha'_{sw} = \partial\alpha_{sw}/\partial\theta$, we rewrite Eq. 7 as

$$H_u = a_u S_u^2 + b_u S_u + \epsilon_u (t - t_0), \quad (8)$$

where $a_u = \int_0^{h_u} \alpha'_{sw} \varphi^2 dz$ and $b_u = \int_0^{h_u} \alpha_{0sw} \varphi dz$. The linear term b_u is the expansion of the upper layer for a given warming while the quadratic term a_u comes from the temperature

dependence of α_{sw} . We tacked on $\epsilon_u(t - t_0)$ to absorb instrument drift during calibration. As GMST, $T(t)$, changes, the amplitude evolves as

$$\frac{dS_u}{dt} = \frac{T - S_u}{\tau_u}, \quad (9)$$

where τ_u is the characteristic time over which the thermal state S_u relaxes to GMST. Equation 9 shows that S_u is an average of past temperatures, weighted toward the recent past over a time window set by τ_u . The upper layer therefore smooths year-to-year fluctuations in GMST and follows longer trends with a delay comparable to τ_u .

The deep layer follows the same construction, with $\Delta\theta_d(z, t) = S_d(t) \varphi_d(z)$ over 700–2000 m depth and $b_d = \int_{h_u}^{h_d} \alpha_{0sw} \varphi_d dz$, with $h_d = 2000$ m. We drop the quadratic term because S_d remains small enough that the temperature dependence of α_{sw} can be neglected. Warming from GMST reaches the deep layer only after passing through the upper layer, so the thermal state S_d relaxes toward S_u as

$$\frac{dS_d}{dt} = \frac{S_u - S_d}{\tau_d}, \quad (10)$$

where we fixed $\tau_d = 150$ yr at the CMIP5 multi-model mean deep-ocean adjustment time (*Geoffroy et al.*, 2013, Table 4), because the 21-year 0–2000 m data record is too short to constrain a centennial relaxation time. Adding this layer gives the total steric response for the upper 2000 m as,

$$H_{ud}(t) = H_u(t) + b_d S_d, \quad (11)$$

which we fit jointly to the 0–700 m and 0–2000 m records. Finally, to account for expansion below 2000 m depth, we define

$$H_{full}(t) = H_{ud}(t) + \dot{H}_b(t - t_{ref}), \quad (12)$$

where $\dot{H}_b = 0.07 \pm 0.04$ mm yr^{−1} (*Purkey and Johnson*, 2010) is a constant rate for depths below 2000 m, referenced to year $t_{ref} = 2000$. This layer is not observed at annual resolution, so its rate is adopted rather than calibrated.

We fit the two-layer model in Eq. 11 jointly to the thermosteric sea level estimates at 0–700 m (1955–2025) and 0–2000 m (2005–2025) (*Levitus et al.*, 2012). We use Bayesian inference (*Tarantola*, 2005) in which MCMC samples parameter combinations $\phi = (a, b_u, b_d, \epsilon_u, \tau_u, \sigma_{extra})$ with probability density proportional to the posterior (Fig. S2 of the Supplementary Materials). Assuming the residual at each point is normally distributed about the model with variance σ_i^2 , the negative log-likelihood takes the form $\frac{1}{2} \sum_i [(r_i(\phi)/\sigma_i)^2 + \ln \sigma_i^2]$. Adding a negative log-prior for τ_u , whose log-normal prior (defined below) has mean μ_{τ_u} and standard deviation s_{τ_u} in $\ln \tau_u$, gives the objective function

$$\mathcal{J}(\phi) = \sum_i \left[\left(\frac{r_i(\phi)}{\sigma_i} \right)^2 + \ln \sigma_i^2 \right] + \left(\frac{\ln \tau_u - \mu_{\tau_u}}{s_{\tau_u}} \right)^2, \quad (13)$$

which is twice the negative log-posterior up to an additive constant. MCMC visits parameter combinations ϕ with probability proportional to $\exp[-\mathcal{J}(\phi)/2]$. Here, $r_i(\phi)$ is the residual between the demeaned model and demeaned observation at point i , and σ_i^2 is that

point’s total variance. The point variance is defined by the quadrature sum of the formal measurement error, a structural uncertainty retained after a bias correction in the NOAA thermosteric observations (*Li et al.*, 2022), and σ_{extra} , a noise term, shared across both the 0–700 m and 0–2000 m records, that absorbs misfit beyond the reported observational error. The MCMC sampling uses package *emcee* with 64 walkers, 6000 burn-in steps, and 30,000 production steps to ensure convergence. The relaxation time of the upper layer, τ_u , has an informative prior, $\log(\tau_u) \sim \mathcal{N}(\ln 8, 0.5^2)$, or $\mu_{\tau_u} = \ln(8 \text{ yr})$ and $s_{\tau_u} = 0.5 \text{ yr}$, consistent with the range in *Geoffroy et al.* (2013). The model parameters b_u and τ_u are correlated in the likelihood—a slower upper-layer response can be partly offset by a larger sensitivity to fit the same trajectory—but this partial degeneracy is managed by the prior on τ_u . Five parameters — a , b_u , b_d , ϵ_u , and $\log(\sigma_{\text{extra}})$ — get uninformative uniform priors with wide bounds (Fig. S2). The posterior median and 90% credible intervals are: $a = 20$ [10.1, 31.2] mm °C⁻², $b_u = 51$ [40.6, 75.4] mm °C⁻¹, $b_d = 68.6$ [37.0, 104.3] mm °C⁻¹, $\epsilon_u = 0.023$ [−0.112, 0.140] mm yr⁻¹, $\tau_u = 11.6$ [6.2, 25.3] yr, and $\sigma_{\text{extra}} = 2$ [1.7, 2.3] mm. The calibrated model reproduces both records with RMS residuals of 2.3 mm for depths 0–700 m and 1.3 mm for 0–2000 m, against 42 and 30 mm of observed rise over the respective records.

We validate the full-depth model in Eq. 12 against two reconstructions of global-mean steric sea level, both withheld from calibration (Fig. 2c,f). *Frederikse et al.* (2020) reconstruct steric sea level for 1900–2018. Over 1957–2018 they draw, for each ensemble member, from three gridded products built on the same archive of in situ temperature and salinity profiles (*Levitus et al.*, 2012; *Ishii et al.*, 2017; *Cheng and Zhu*, 2016). The first of these is the record our model is calibrated on, so over this period the comparison measures consistency between separate analyses of largely shared data. Before 1957, when in situ coverage is too sparse to resolve global steric change, the comparison is instead to their pre-1957 segment, which is built on the *Zanna et al.* (2019) reconstruction of ocean heat storage, inferred from sea-surface temperature anomalies and heat-transport pathways from an ocean reanalysis. *Zanna et al.* (2019) also supplies their expansion below 2000 m over the full 1900–2018 period, where we adopt the constant rate of *Purkey and Johnson* (2010). The pre-1957 segment is therefore the part of this comparison that is independent of the data used in calibration. Our model agrees with the reconstruction to an RMS difference of 2.6 mm over 1957–2018 and 3.8 mm before 1957.

Our second validation comes from *Dangendorf et al.* (2024) who assimilate 516 tide-gauge records and satellite altimetry in an ensemble Kalman smoother that solves for GMSL over 1900–2021. They then remove barystatic, glacial isostatic adjustment, and inverse-barometer contributions to estimate the thermosteric contribution. No temperature or salinity measurement enters this calculation, so the comparison tests our model against a steric estimate that shares none of the in situ ocean data used to calibrate it. Our model agrees with their reconstruction to an RMS difference of 3.5 mm over 1957–2021 and 5.0 mm before 1957 (Fig. 2c,f).

2.1.3 Glaciers

The rate of glacier mass loss has been shown to be approximately linear with warming (*Rounce et al.*, 2023; *The GlambIE Team et al.*, 2025). In the interest of developing consistent uncertainty quantification for this study, we perform our own Bayesian inference of the

cumulative glacier sea-level contribution using the Glacier Mass Balance Intercomparison Exercise (GlaMBIE) time-series from 2000–2023. In level space, the model is

$$H_{gl}(t) = b_{gl} \int_{t_0}^t T d\tau + c_{gl}(t - t_0) + H_{gl_0} + \varepsilon_{gl}(t), \quad (14)$$

where T is the GMST anomaly, evaluated at the annual resolution of the GlaMBIE calendar-year-mean, t_0 is the study’s baseline year (2000) when H_{gl_0} is the model’s level, and $\varepsilon_{gl}(t)$ is jointly distributed as $\mathcal{N}(0, \Sigma_{gl})$, with Σ_{gl} the true covariance matrix of the cumulative data, built directly from the GlaMBIE annual uncertainties. We apply weakly informative priors $b_{gl} \sim \mathcal{N}(0.61, 2.0)$ mm yr^{−1} °C^{−1}, truncated at $b_{gl} \geq 0$, and $c_{gl} \sim \mathcal{N}(0.3, 1)$ mm yr^{−1}. The prior mean for b_{gl} is drawn from *Rounce et al.* (2023), whose reported end-of-century glacier contributions of 0.70 to 2.23 mm yr^{−1} across warming scenarios of 1.5 to 4 °C imply a sensitivity near 0.61 mm yr^{−1} °C^{−1}. The standard deviation is wide enough that the prior is only weakly informative, and the non-negativity truncation recognizes that glaciers lose mass as the climate warms. For the MCMC, we use package *emcee* with 32 walkers, 2000 burn-in steps, and 4000 production steps. The posterior median sensitivity is $b = 0.86$ mm yr^{−1} °C^{−1} [0.43–1.29] and the committed rate is $c = 0.55$ mm yr^{−1} [0.43–0.68].

2.1.4 Antarctic Peninsula

The Antarctic Peninsula component uses the same level-space Bayesian framework as glaciers, fit at annual resolution to the IMBIE-3 Peninsula time-series spanning 1979–2023 (45 annual points; *Otosaka et al.*, 2026), with the rate–temperature model $\dot{H}_p = a_p T^2 + b_p T + c_p$. The Peninsula contribution in this work reflects combined SMB and glacier discharge responses to warming. As with glaciers, H_{p_0} is anchored at the record’s own first point (1979), and the true covariance of this cumulative record, built from the IMBIE-3 uncertainties, is used in the likelihood. Unlike glaciers, we also fit a model-inadequacy term $\sigma_{p,\text{extra}}$ to account for annual scatter beyond the IMBIE-3 reported uncertainty. The *emcee* implementation uses 32 walkers, 2000 burn-in steps, and 4000 production steps. We fit both the linear ($a_p = 0$) and quadratic model with priors $b_p \sim \mathcal{N}(0, 2.0)$ mm yr^{−1} °C^{−1} and $c_p \sim \mathcal{N}(0.3, 1)$ mm yr^{−1}. The Bayesian Information Criterion favors the linear model with posterior median sensitivity $b_p = 0.044$ mm yr^{−1} °C^{−1} [−0.022, 0.106] and committed rate $c_p = 0.056$ mm yr^{−1} [0.039, 0.072] (Fig. 3b). The confidence interval spans zero, so these data do not, on their own, resolve the sign of the temperature sensitivity.

2.1.5 East Antarctica

The EAIS component follows the same corrected level-space framework as glaciers and the Peninsula, fit at annual resolution to the IMBIE-3 EAIS record (1979–2023, 45 annual points; (*Otosaka et al.*, 2026)), with H_{e_0} anchored at the record’s own first point and the true covariance of the cumulative record, built from the IMBIE-3 uncertainties. The linear sensitivity b_e is given a symmetric prior, $b_e \sim \mathcal{N}(-0.17, 0.5)$ mm yr^{−1} °C^{−1}. The prior mean is drawn from an independent literature surface-mass-balance sensitivity ($C_T = 60 \pm 20$ Gt yr^{−1} °C^{−1}; *Frieler et al.*, 2015; *Ligtenberg et al.*, 2013). The posterior sensitivity is $b_e = -0.016$ mm yr^{−1} °C^{−1} [−0.15, 0.11] and committed rate $c_e = 0.007$ mm yr^{−1} [−0.03,

0.04], with a reduced chi-square of 0.91 against the reported IMBIE-3 uncertainties (Fig. 3c).

2.1.6 West Antarctica

Unlike glaciers, the Antarctic Peninsula, and EAIS, we do not fit a rate–temperature regression to WAIS over the observational record because heat in the oceans has Aa the major driver of WAIS mass loss, and oceanographic data sets are too sparse to allow for a reliable ocean-driven fit. We instead fit a quadratic in time to the 1979–2023 IMBIE-3 mass balance time series (*Otosaka et al.*, 2026). This fit uses the same Bayesian framework as §2.1.4 but replacing temperature with time. The acceleration a is given a symmetric prior, $a \sim \mathcal{N}(0, \sigma = 0.05 \text{ mm yr}^{-2})$. The quadratic yields an acceleration of 0.012 mm yr^{-2} [0.011–0.013] and a rate in year 2000 of 0.230 mm yr^{-1} [0.215–0.246] (Fig. 3d). We set the rate of WAIS loss to zero prior to 1979, when the IMBIE-3 time series begins and the fit to the data shows a rate $< 0.05 \text{ mm/yr}$.

2.2 Forecasting methods and validation

The forecasts presented here use the IPCC AR6 GMST trajectories for different emission scenarios, though they can be applied to any GMST trajectory. We focus on the policy-relevant emission scenarios, which are labeled by their approximate median end-of-century global mean surface temperature anomaly (relative to preindustrial) rounded to the nearest integer: 2°C (SSP1-2.6), 3°C (SSP2-4.5), and 4°C (SSP3-7.0). We initialize the GMSL forecast using the GMSL level, rate, and acceleration observed in the satellite-era and blend in the component-model sum in rate space, such that

$$\dot{H}_{\text{forecast}} = w\dot{H}_{\text{obs}} + [1 - w]\dot{H}_{\text{comp}}, \quad (15)$$

where $\dot{H}_{\text{obs}}$ is the rate from the satellite-era quadratic fit of *Hamlington et al.* (2024); *Nerem et al.* (2022), $\dot{H}_{\text{comp}}$ is the rate of the sum of the calibrated components. The blending weight $w(t)$ is a sigmoid

$$w = 1 - \Theta\left(\frac{t - t_r}{\tau_r}\right), \quad (16)$$

where $\Theta(x) = (1 + e^{-x})^{-1}$ is the standard logistic function, $t_r = 2035$, and $\tau_r = 5 \text{ yr}$. At $t \ll t_r$, $w \approx 1$ and the forecast follows the observed quadratic trajectory. At $t \gg t_r$, $w \approx 0$ and the forecast follows the component models. The transition spans approximately 22 years, meaning that 10%–90% of the weight shift occurs over $\pm 2.2\tau_r \approx \pm 11 \text{ yr}$ about t_r . We chose $t_r = 2035$ because it is more than a quarter and less than a half of the GMSL satellite altimetry record into the future, a period when the extrapolation of observations should have strong forecasting skill. The tapering recognizes the expected reduction in forecasting skill of the simple data extrapolation over timescales longer than roughly half of the observational window. Pushing t_r to 5 years later (approximately half of the calibration window and arguably the latest viable choice) produces forecasts that are indistinguishable within uncertainty, suggesting the results are largely insensitive to the specific value of t_r within the range of 10–15 years into the future.

The GMSL forecast is obtained by integrating Eq. (15) forward from the observed level at the forecast origin ($t_0 = 2025$, the most recent NASA altimetry data as of this writing), so that

$$H_{\text{forecast}}(t) = H_{\text{obs}}(t_0) + \int_{t_0}^t \dot{H}_{\text{forecast}}(t') dt'. \quad (17)$$

The blending is done sample-by-sample across the 2000-member Monte Carlo ensemble, preserving correlations between the quadratic-fit parameter uncertainty and the component-model uncertainty. Because the extrapolation is derived entirely from the satellite altimetry record, it carries no dependence on emissions pathway. The component sum, $\dot{H}_{\text{comp}}$, is SSP-dependent through the temperature-forced component models. Consequently, the blended forecast is SSP-independent in the near term (where $w \approx 1$) and becomes progressively SSP-dependent as the component physics dominate at later times.

Uncertainty in $\dot{H}_{\text{comp}}$ is propagated by Monte Carlo summation of the components. Each component has its own 2000-member ensemble of level-space projections $H_k(t)$, drawn independently from that component’s posterior or, for components using prescribed literature sensitivities rather than data calibration, from the corresponding parameter distributions. The total level is formed sample-by-sample, $H_{\text{comp},i}(t) = \sum_k H_{k,i}(t)$ for $i = 1, \dots, 2000$, so draws from independently calibrated components are summed without pairing individual samples by any shared physical driver. The component rate $\dot{H}_{\text{comp}}$ used in Eq. (15) is obtained by finite-differencing this summed ensemble in time before blending with the observational quadratic rate. Reported credible intervals (66% and 90%) are the 17th/83rd and 5th/95th empirical percentiles of the resulting ensemble at each time step.

2.2.1 Component-level GMST dependence

Some of the SPECTRUM model components described in Section 2.1 lack direct, explicit dependences on GMST. These components include the Greenland glacier discharge, which depends on the temperature of the ocean surrounding Greenland, and the SMB of Greenland and EAIS.

To project GrIS discharge model forward in time, we calibrate a transfer function between the Greenland regional surface temperature anomaly and the ocean temperature and then apply a normal distribution of Arctic amplification factors to calculate the Greenland regional surface temperature from projected GMST under different emission scenarios. The linear transfer function on annual-mean observations is

$$T_{\text{ocean}}(t) = \xi T_{\text{surface}}^{\text{Gr}}(t) + \chi + \varepsilon_{go}(t), \quad (18)$$

where $T_{\text{surface}}^{\text{Gr}}$ is the Greenland regional surface temperature anomaly and ε_{go} is a zero-mean residual. Both series are anomalies relative to the 1995–2005 baseline. An OLS fit over 52 common annual values gives $\xi = 0.148 \pm 0.027$, $\chi = -0.051 \pm 0.031$ °C, and residual standard deviation $\sigma_{\varepsilon_{go}} = 0.20$ °C.

For projections, SSP GMST trajectories are converted to Greenland regional surface temperature using an Arctic amplification factor $AA = 3.0 \pm 0.5$, consistent with the observed ratio of Greenland-to-global warming over 1970–2021. Greenland regional surface temperatures (*Rohde and Hausfather, 2020*) are used in Eq. (18) to obtain projected T_{ocean} , which

then enters Eq. (2) via the delayed integral. Each of the 2,000 Monte Carlo samples draws $AA \sim \mathcal{N}(3.0, 0.5^2)$, $\xi \sim \mathcal{N}(0.148, 0.027^2)$, and $\chi \sim \mathcal{N}(-0.051, 0.031^2)$ jointly with (γ, r_0) from the discharge posterior, with the ocean-temperature delay held fixed at $\delta = 5$ yr, so that Arctic amplification, transfer-function, and discharge parameter uncertainties all propagate into the projections. A single draw of (ξ, χ, γ, r_0) is applied to all SSP scenarios, so that inter-SSP differences isolate the effect of the emissions pathway from parameter uncertainty.

For SMB in Greenland and EAIS, the forecast uses simple thermodynamic models calibrated from regional climate models. For Greenland SMB, the forecast uses a quadratic temperature scaling $\dot{H}_{\text{smb}} = C_{T^2}\Delta T^2 + C_T\Delta T + \dot{M}_0$ with sensitivities drawn from the spread between regional climate models (Fettweis *et al.*, 2020; Noël *et al.*, 2021; Glaude *et al.*, 2024). The linear sensitivity $C_T \sim \mathcal{N}(-300, 80^2)$ Gt yr⁻¹ °C⁻¹ of GMST encompasses the MAR, RACMO, and HIRHAM estimates. The quadratic sensitivity, $C_{T^2} \sim \mathcal{N}(-50, 30^2)$ Gt yr⁻¹ °C⁻², represents the effects of ablation zone expansion and melt-albedo feedback with warming. $\dot{M}_0 = 380$ Gt yr⁻¹ is the baseline SMB. For EAIS SMB, we use a linear model ($C_{T^2} = 0$) and the literature-derived accumulation sensitivity $C_T = 60 \pm 20$ Gt yr⁻¹ °C⁻¹ of GMST (Frieler *et al.*, 2015; Ligtenberg *et al.*, 2013), reflecting the Clausius–Clapeyron scaling of snowfall with warming ($C_T > 0$ corresponds to EAIS mass gain through accumulation). Data from IMBIE-3 show EAIS in approximate balance (Fig. 3c), so we set $\dot{M}_0 = 0$. The EAIS contribution is small (−13 to −30 mm at 2100, depending on scenario) relative to the total, meaning the GMSL projection results of this study are largely insensitive to these parameter choices.

Terrestrial water storage projections are adopted directly from the IPCC AR6 rather than independently modeled, as the processes governing groundwater depletion, reservoir impoundment, and land hydrology changes are outside the scope of this framework and the data are insufficient to allow for a data-driven approach as with other components. At each decadal interval in the IPCC projections, we fit a Gaussian distribution to the reported median and inter-quantile spread and draw 2,000 Monte Carlo samples, which are then linearly interpolated to annual resolution. For the hindcast and budget-closure diagnostics we use the Frederikse *et al.* (2020) TWS estimate with Monte Carlo sampling from their reported uncertainties, but only from 2003 onward. Their TWS is derived from GRACE and GRACE-FO observations over 2003–2018, partitioned from the total land-mass signal; before 2003 it is a composite of a reconstruction of climate-driven water storage and process models for reservoir impoundment and groundwater depletion rather than a measurement. We therefore set TWS to zero before 2003, rebased so the cumulative contribution is continuous across the transition, and we note that the pre-2003 component sum consequently omits a real contribution to sea level. TWS varies little among scenarios and its contribution is small relative to the total, so it does not materially affect the uncertainty budget.

2.2.2 West Antarctic Ice Sheet

West Antarctica dominates the uncertainty in sea-level projections because its major outlet glaciers, particularly Thwaites and Pine Island, lie close to a threshold at which small changes in ice geometry could trigger self-sustaining retreat (Joughin *et al.*, 2014; Pattyn and Morlighem, 2020; Fricker *et al.*, 2025). Whether that threshold has been, or will be, crossed depends on glacier-specific details that remain only partly observed. The underlying mech-

anism, known as the Marine Ice Sheet Instability (MISI), was first proposed several decades ago (Mercer, 1968; Weertman, 1974) and later formalized in idealized settings (Schoof, 2007). In essence, MISI could arise where glaciers rest on beds that are below sea level and deepen inland, which allows thinning to float the ice off the seafloor, reducing basal drag, and allowing further acceleration and thinning. The assumptions that drive runaway in idealized models do not necessarily map to the present day West Antarctic Ice Sheet, where various processes complicate straightforward application of the MISI concept. For example, ice shelves, the floating extensions of the ice sheet, buttress the glaciers upstream of them (Gudmundsson, 2013; Pegler, 2018; Haseloff and Sergienko, 2018). The magnitude of buttressing, and how it evolves as the glacier retreats, depends on the geometry of the bed and shelf, factors that vary across West Antarctica (Sergienko and Winham, 2019; Sergienko and Hindmarsh, 2013). Buttressing can evolve on multi-annual timescales as recently evinced by direct observations of the Pine Island Ice Shelf that show a near-total loss of buttressing stress over roughly the past decade, accompanying a 20% increase in glacier velocity (Wells-Moran et al., 2026), and ongoing evolution of the Thwaites ice shelf (Alley et al., 2021). Retreat of glaciers also can be driven independently by sustained ocean warming melting the ice from below (Jenkins et al., 2018; Davis et al., 2023), a process nominally distinct from a genuinely self-sustaining runaway (MISI) in that it depends on continued oceanic heat delivery rather than on geometry and buoyancy alone. In practice, however, the distinction between an internally driven runaway retreat and one driven by continued oceanic heating is not clear cut because the two can produce near-identical retreat over the coming decades while implying markedly different outcomes over subsequent centuries (Sergienko et al., 2026; Hill et al., 2023; Reese et al., 2023). Recent regional ocean modeling finds that such heat delivery is itself largely committed over the coming decades, regardless of near-term emissions pathways (Naughten et al., 2023), and current melt rates may already be sufficient to have triggered self-sustaining retreat independently of any further increase in forcing (Arthern and Williams, 2017). This combination of a physically plausible positive feedback mechanism, glacier-specific buttressing whose variability is difficult to predict, and the challenge of distinguishing reversible from irreversible retreat using present-day data, together make West Antarctica’s future contribution to GMSL the largest and most consequential source of uncertainty in current projections (Bamber et al., 2019). As a result, current projections of West Antarctica’s GMSL contribution span a wide range, from several centimeters to several tens of centimeters by 2100 under high-emissions scenarios, according to the multi-model assessments underlying IPCC AR6 (Fox-Kemper et al., 2021; Seroussi et al., 2020; Edwards et al., 2021).

Given these complexities and uncertainties, we do not attempt to constrain a GMST sensitivity for WAIS. Such an effort is beyond the scope of this work. Instead, we develop a two-scenario mixture model to represent a range of potential GMSL contributions from WAIS in the 21st century. Based on growing evidence that WAIS mass loss is primarily sensitive to internal ice dynamics and deep ocean temperatures that are likely to change slowly in the coming decades, we make our WAIS projections independent of the warming trajectory. Thus, the range of 21st-century outcomes is controlled by ice dynamics that are insensitive to emissions over our forecasting horizon in the SPECTRUM model, consistent with previous studies (Naughten et al., 2023; Coulon et al., 2024; Rosier et al., 2025).

In Scenario 1 (S1), mass loss continues along the observed trajectory (Fig. 3d). Extrapolation

olating the trend gives a median GMSL contribution of 84 mm by 2100, closely matching the median of the ISMIP6 emulator, 85 mm (*Edwards et al.*, 2021). The ISMIP6 emulator is the only model in AR6 with a symmetric distribution. This median falls between the modes of the LARMIP-2 assessment (*Levermann et al.*, 2020) — with mode 73 mm, median 137 mm, and skewness 2.42 — and the structured expert judgment (*Bamber et al.*, 2019), with mode 120 mm, median 207 mm, and skewness 2.40. A 45-year observational record cannot itself constrain how much additional error should accumulate from extrapolating a further 76 years beyond it, so a confidence interval built from the fitted parameters alone would understate the true uncertainty in this extrapolation. We instead treat the reported growth in uncertainty beyond the last observation in the ISMIP6 emulator as an external estimate of the extrapolation error, applying it as a prediction error following *Tarantola* (2005), and add it to our parameter uncertainty. This widens our 90% CI at 2100 to $[-13, 180]$ mm, closely matching the range of the ISMIP6 emulator of $[-11, 182]$ mm. The S1 probability distribution, exceedance curve, and time-series are shown in Fig 4 by the curve with the probability of S1, $p(S1)$, at 100%.

Scenario 2 (S2) is intended to represent a future where mass loss can accelerate well beyond the current observed rates. We define the distribution in year 2100 with a lower bound (5th percentile) of 84 mm, equal to the S1 median. The S2 upper bound (95th percentile) is 1.3 m, approximately the IPCC AR6 low-confidence Antarctic Ice Sheet 95th percentile under SSP5-8.5 in the year 2100 (*Fox-Kemper et al.*, 2021). The distribution is right-skewed, and defined as skew-normal in log-space with shape parameter $\lambda = 3$, reflecting the expectation that instability skews outcomes toward greater loss (*Robel et al.*, 2019). A sensitivity analysis indicates that the results we present are largely insensitive to the chosen value of λ within the expected reliability of the distributions. The S2 probability distribution, exceedance curve, and time-series are shown in Fig 4 as the $p(S1) = 0$ curve.

The final probability density is a simple mixture of S1 and S2. Its median, 95th percentile, and other quantiles are determined primarily by $p(S1)$ and the upper bound (95th percentile) of S2. These two mixing parameters are closely related in a simple mapping to the median and 95th percentile of the mixture (Fig. 5), which allows a single control variable for most use cases (Fig 4). The trajectory of WAIS mass loss through time is set by a power law in time that starts at the observed rate and accelerates toward the 2100 value, with median exponent $\beta = 2$, chosen so the S2 95th percentile stays within the IPCC AR6 medium-confidence range for the Antarctic Ice Sheet until about 2050 and exceeds it afterward. We chose $p(S1)$ as the control variable and present two cases at the bounds of the IPCC calibrated likelihood scale: a ‘slow WAIS’ case with $p(S1) = 90\%$, in which continued mass loss along the observed trajectory is very likely, and a ‘fast WAIS’ case with $p(S1) = 10\%$, in which it is very unlikely. The 10% weight retained on the accelerating branch in the slow-WAIS case reflects that the observational record cannot yet retire that outcome.

3 Results

3.1 Validation

3.1.1 Total GMSL budget closure

Satellite altimetry data collected from 1993–2025 provide observations of GMSL (*Beckley et al.*, 2017; *Hamlington et al.*, 2020) that can be compared with the sum of the independently calibrated model components (Fig. 6). Total GMSL is withheld from calibration to serve as a validation data set. For Greenland SMB, which we do not calibrate due to data sparseness, we use RACMO-derived SMB (*Mouginot et al.*, 2019). Terrestrial water storage is adopted from *Frederikse et al.* (2020) from 2003 onward, the period over which their estimate derives from GRACE observations, and set to zero before.

The component sum closes 97–103% of the observed GMSLR rate over three epochs (1993–2025, 2000–2025, 2010–2025), offering validation that the individually calibrated components together approximate GMSL during the instrumental record. Because each component is calibrated independently, we treat their rate uncertainties as independent and combine them in quadrature. Each component’s individual uncertainty comes directly from its Monte Carlo ensemble. For a given epoch, we fit a linear trend to every ensemble member and take the standard deviation of the resulting trends. Repeating this for each epoch lets the combined uncertainty differ from one epoch to the next, rather than using one fixed value throughout the satellite record. By this measure, the residual is within one combined standard deviation of the component rate uncertainties in all three epochs (0.82σ , 0.87σ , and 0.78σ for 1993–2025, 2000–2025, and 2010–2025, respectively).

3.1.2 Hindcast of the level, rate, and transient sensitivity

We validate the combined GMST-sensitive model by two hindcasting approaches. Both are generated by forcing the model components with observed GMST back to 1900 (*Rohde and Hausfather*, 2020), with an emphasis on post-1950 when increasingly reliable GMSL data are available. The first comparison is between global mean sea level and rate produced by SPECTRUM with data from *Fox-Kemper et al.* (2021) and *Frederikse et al.* (2020). For the second comparison, we calculate the transient sensitivity of the SPECTRUM output and GMSL data, where the transient sensitivity is defined as $\alpha = d\dot{S}/dT$ with $\dot{S}$ as the rate of change in GMSL. Here, we use the same rate-space blending scheme as the forecast (§2.2), reflected about the forecast origin so that the satellite-era quadratic dominates at late times and the component models at early times, with $t_r = 2015$ and $\tau_r = 5$ yr. This gives the observational term the same weight at 2025 that it carries at the forecast origin, and reduces it to 0.05 by 2000, so the hindcast over the reconstruction era tests the component models rather than restating the altimetry extrapolation.

Extending the hindcast back to 1900 shows two distinct regimes relative to the GMSL reconstructed time-series (Fig. 7a). Over the satellite era the hindcast tracks the observations closely, with a 1993–2025 rate of 3.18 mm yr^{-1} against 3.35, 3.17, and 3.23 mm yr^{-1} for the *Frederikse et al.* (2020) and *Dangendorf et al.* (2024) reconstructions and the IPCC AR6 observational compilation (*Fox-Kemper et al.*, 2021), and with the satellite altimetry record

(Beckley *et al.*, 2017). Earlier in the record it understates the observed rise. Over 1950–2000 the hindcast rate is 0.68 mm yr^{-1} against 1.02, 1.01, and 1.26 mm yr^{-1} for the same three records, and the hindcast level at 1950 sits 16–28 mm above them, indicating too little accumulated rise over the second half of the twentieth century. Before 1950, where only the *Frederikse et al.* (2020) and *Dangendorf et al.* (2024) reconstructions extend, the divergence grows: the hindcast rate is 0.17 mm yr^{-1} against 1.39 and 1.64 mm yr^{-1} over 1900–1950, and the hindcast level at 1900 is 87–93 mm above the reconstructions, relative to the 2000 baseline. The exclusion of terrestrial water storage before 2003 does not account for this shortfall; because impoundment made that term a negative contribution through the dam era, omitting it moves the hindcast toward the reconstructions rather than away. This divergence coincides with the period in which the reconstructions rely increasingly on sparse tide-gauge coverage and model-based infilling and our model suffers from a lack of constraints on mass changes in the Greenland Ice Sheet and glaciers. The limitations of our model arise by design: we chose to focus only on model representations that can be fit to observations and that represent the ongoing response to warming. This choice excludes more complete and complex land-ice process representations that would be necessary to represent GMSL during colder periods in the past, as this is not our goal. We therefore treat the pre-1950 hindcast as qualitatively informative but do not draw quantitative conclusions from it. We restrict our validation claims to the 75-year, post-1950 period, where component calibration data are available.

The transient sensitivity of our component model, which defines the change in the rate of change in GMSL with warming, tracks closely with the observed sensitivities (Fig. 7b). It is worth emphasizing that this agreement includes the transition from the earlier period when thermosteric sea-level rise was the largest contributor to GMSL to the present when the sum of land-ice and terrestrial water storage (barystatic) are larger overall contributors to GMSL. The transient sensitivity of the observations and model also agree with the semi-empirical results of *Rahmstorf* (2007) (Fig. 7b), which continue to track observations nearly 20 years after publication, showing that the simple semi-empirical model continues to provide a reasonable first-estimate of GMSL rise with warming.

Together, the level, rate, and transient-sensitivity comparisons indicate that our framework reproduces the observed behavior of GMSLR over a 75-year window (1950–2025) spanning $1.1\text{--}1.2^\circ\text{C}$ of GMST change, without having been calibrated on observations of GMSL itself. This window includes two forms of agreement and one shortfall. The hindcast reproduces the satellite-era rate (3.18 mm yr^{-1} over 1993–2025, against $3.17\text{--}3.35 \text{ mm yr}^{-1}$ in the observational records), and its transient sensitivity reproduces both the observed rate–temperature curvature and its underlying physical cause (the shift from thermosteric to barystatic dominance). It understates the 1950–2000 rate, however, giving 0.68 mm yr^{-1} against $1.01\text{--}1.26 \text{ mm yr}^{-1}$, which we attribute to the absence of observational constraints on glaciers and the Greenland Ice Sheet before the satellite era. To our knowledge, no other GMSL forecasting framework or model presents this level of detailed validation or hindcast skill. Because this validation window is comparable in duration and magnitude of warming to the near- and mid-term forecast horizon, it supports extending the same confidence forward over a comparable span, through 2100 and a further $1\text{--}2^\circ\text{C}$ of warming, consistent with the taper used to blend observed and component-model trends in the forecast itself (§2.2). This validated envelope does not, however, extend to processes for which comparable historical

constraints do not exist, which is why WAIS, the largest source of forecast uncertainty, is treated separately through a scenario-based ‘storyline’, rather than data-driven approach, in this work.

3.2 Component projections

We drive the calibrated model components with the IPCC AR6 GMST trajectories of 2 °C (SSP1-2.6), 3 °C (SSP2-4.5), and 4 °C (SSP3-7.0), the pathways most consistent with current policies and stated pledges (Fig. 8a). Projected levels are for 2100 relative to the study baseline year 2000, given as posterior median with the 90% credible interval in brackets. Comparisons with the IPCC AR6 medium-confidence projections re-reference our projections to our model’s 1995–2014 mean, the AR6 baseline (*Fox-Kemper et al.*, 2021).

The thermosteric contribution is 143 [114, 183], 242 [203, 291], and 370 [303, 452] mm at 2, 3, and 4 °C, respectively (Fig. 8b). The corresponding AR6 medians for thermal expansion are 142, 197, and 249 mm. On the shared 1995–2014 baseline our 2 °C projection matches AR6, a ratio of 0.96. Our median then rises to 20% above the AR6 median at 3 °C and 46% above at 4 °C. Two features of the two-layer model (*Geoffroy et al.*, 2013) drive that divergence. The quadratic term in the upper-layer expansion carries the temperature dependence of the thermal expansion coefficient of seawater, so each added degree of warming expands the upper ocean more than the last. The deep layer also draws heat from the upper layer throughout the century, consistent with observed deep-ocean warming (*Purkey and Johnson*, 2010; *Cheng et al.*, 2017).

The Greenland Ice Sheet contributes 122 [92, 152], 169 [122, 214], and 218 [152, 283] mm at 2, 3, and 4 °C (Fig. 8c). The AR6 medians are 55, 83, and 114 mm. Ours are 1.9 to 2.2 times as large, and our 5th percentile exceeds the AR6 median in every scenario. An independently calibrated Greenland posterior (*Aschwanden and Brinkerhoff*, 2022) also sits above AR6, and its stated envelope of 4 to 30 cm contains our 90% intervals in all three scenarios. The RCP scenarios of that study correspond only approximately to our SSP scenarios, and RCP8.5 is closer to SSP5-8.5 than to the SSP3-7.0 pathway of our 4 °C case. Our Greenland discharge model is calibrated against the observed discharge record (*Mouginot et al.*, 2019), with independent mass-balance records withheld for validation (*Mankoff et al.*, 2021; *Otosaka et al.*, 2026). Greenland projections calibrated on observations therefore run high relative to the ISMIP6-based process-model ensembles that underpin AR6 (*Seroussi et al.*, 2020; *Edwards et al.*, 2021). The ocean-forced discharge pathway is the likely source of the difference (*Slater et al.*, 2020; *Wood et al.*, 2021).

We project glacier contributions of 122 [98, 146], 149 [113, 188], and 175 [126, 227] mm at 2, 3, and 4 °C (Fig. 8d). The AR6 medians are 89, 123, and 157 mm. On the shared 1995–2014 baseline our ratios to AR6 are 1.34, 1.19, and 1.10, so our glacier projection converges on the AR6 median as warming increases. *Rounce et al.* (2023) report the glacier contribution over 2015–2100 relative to 2015, binned by 2100 warming. Our 2015 level is 9.5 mm above the 2000 baseline. Over that window we project medians of 112, 139, and 165 mm, against their ensemble medians of 99 ± 31 , 125 ± 39 , and 154 ± 44 mm, reported as median and 95% confidence interval. The agreement holds in all three scenarios. The rate of glacier mass loss is approximately linear with warming in the GlaMBIE record that we calibrate to (*The GlaMBIE Team et al.*, 2025), consistent with glacier model ensembles (*Rounce et al.*,

2023; *Marzeion et al.*, 2020). Our glacier warming-sensitivity prior is centered on $0.61 \text{ mm yr}^{-1} \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}^{-1}$, drawn from *Rounce et al.* (2023), so this comparison is a consistency check. The prior is weakly informative and the GlambIE record sets the posterior.

The combined Antarctic Peninsula and EAIS contribution stays near zero, with medians of -4.5 $[-13.7, 3.9]$, -8.7 $[-21.9, 3.0]$, and -12.7 $[-29.3, 2.1]$ mm at 2, 3, and 4 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ (Fig. 8e). Negative values denote a sea-level fall. All three 90% intervals span zero, so the sign of the net contribution is not resolved. The EAIS contribution falls from -13.5 to -24.5 mm across the three scenarios as the accumulation response strengthens, partly offset by a Peninsula contribution rising from $+8.9$ to $+11.6$ mm. The EAIS projection adopts a literature surface-mass-balance sensitivity, $C_T = 60 \pm 20 \text{ Gt yr}^{-1} \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}^{-1}$ (*Frierler et al.*, 2015; *Ligtenberg et al.*, 2013). The IMBIE-3 regression serves as a diagnostic check on that value (*Otosaka et al.*, 2026). The Peninsula sensitivity is calibrated to the IMBIE-3 Peninsula record (*Otosaka et al.*, 2026). It reflects both surface melt and the dynamic response to ice-shelf collapse (*Scambos et al.*, 2004). West Antarctica is treated separately below.

3.3 Full model projections

For the 2 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ target, our forecast shows a median of 0.62 m of sea-level rise $[0.45\text{--}1.54 \text{ m}]$ relative to year 2000, which is 39% above the IPCC AR6 medium-confidence estimate of 0.44 m after referencing our projection to the AR6 baseline. Under 3 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ warming, approximately the current trajectory, the median is 0.79 m $[0.61\text{--}1.73 \text{ m}]$, 40% above IPCC’s 0.56 m. For the 4 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ trajectory, the median reaches 1.00 m $[0.79\text{--}1.92 \text{ m}]$, 46% above IPCC’s 0.68 m. For reference, the 5 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ warming trajectory (SSP5-8.5) yields a median of 1.19 m $[0.94\text{--}2.09 \text{ m}]$.

Relative to pre-industrial GMSL (adding ~ 0.19 m of observed rise through 2000), these forecasts correspond to medians of 0.81–1.19 m of global mean sea level rise across the 2–4 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ policy-relevant pathways. The probability of exceeding 1 m relative to pre-industrial by 2100 is 26% under 2 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ warming, 46% under 3 $^{\circ}\text{C}$, and 92% under 4 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ warming trajectory. The probability of exceeding 2 m relative to pre-industrial by 2100 ranges from 3% to 6% across the 2–4 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ pathways, reaching its minimum if warming is held below 2 $^{\circ}\text{C}$. Where slow WAIS mass loss is very likely, the probability of exceeding 1 m relative to pre-industrial by 2100 falls to 3% at 2 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ and 6% at 3 $^{\circ}\text{C}$, though it remains 72% at 4 $^{\circ}\text{C}$, and the probability of exceeding 2 m stays below 1% across the 2–4 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ pathways, implying lower flood risks for tens of millions of people and reduced costs of adaptation and damages of order trillions of US dollars (Fig. 9b). As validation, our component forecast for 3 $^{\circ}\text{C}$ of warming closely agrees with extrapolations of observed GMSLR trends, as should be expected if the warming trend remains similar to the current trend and WAIS, which has contributed 9% of observed GMSLR over the satellite altimetry record (1993–2024), continues to lose mass at its current rate.

Across the range of possible WAIS mass loss and emission scenarios, our forecasts suggest that WAIS is likely to become the dominant source of sea-level rise before the end of the century (Fig. 10a). It is uncertain when that will happen and depends on how quickly emissions decrease. The stack of mean values shows the relative contributions of the primary sea-level contributors, showing that the thermosteric component likely will remain the single largest contributor in the 21st century unless WAIS mass losses overtake it. Greenland and

mountain glaciers will continue to lose mass and contribute to sea level rise throughout the 21st century.

The distribution of the uncertainties shows a dramatic separation between the predictable and, currently, unpredictable components (Fig. 10b). These results show that WAIS accounts for virtually all of the variance, and 74 to 86% of the 90% credible interval, in 21st century sea-level rise. The thermosteric, glacier, and Greenland contributions, all of which have calibrated sensitivities to global mean surface temperature, contribute approximately 1% to the total variance and 14 to 26% to the 90% credible interval, with their share of that interval growing as warming increases. As a result, the 90% uncertainty range of 1.12 m for 3 °C is three times larger than the spread across warming scenario medians (0.38 m from 2–4 °C). This picture changes, but does not reverse, where slow mass loss is very likely. Those three components then set 40 to 59% of the 90% credible interval, up from 14 to 26%, while the 10% residual weight on accelerated loss still carries 86 to 92% of the variance (righthand column of Fig. 10b). The relative magnitude of uncertainties reveals that sea-level risk decomposes into two approximately orthogonal dimensions, each addressed by a distinct class of societal response.

4 Discussion

4.1 Data-driven forecasts as part of a hierarchy

The SPECTRUM framework occupies an intermediate level of a hierarchy of sea-level models ordered by complexity, allowing us to compare the results with the simpler and more complex models. The simplest models extrapolate the observed trends. Carried forward to 2100, a quadratic fit to the satellite altimetry measurements of GMSL gives 0.66 [0.41, 0.91] m of rise relative to the year 2000 (*Hamlington et al.*, 2024; *Nerem et al.*, 2022). The next level of model complexity are the semi-empirical models that fit the rate of global mean sea-level rise to GMST. Applying the semi-empirical relation of *Rahmstorf* (2007) to the current warming trajectory gives 0.67 [0.63, 0.71] m. The calibrated SPECTRUM projection in which WAIS mass loss is very likely to contribute along the observed trajectory gives 0.66 [0.54, 0.84] m at 3 °C (Fig. 9a). The median is up to 1 cm below the naive extrapolation of GMSL and the semi-empirical model, which arises in part by the slowdown in late-21st century warming in SSP2-4.5 GMST. Overall, the close agreement with the calibrated SPECTRUM model — forced with a warming scenario that approximates the current warming trend — and the simpler, empirical approaches provides an additional layer of comparison for the forecast.

At the complex end of the hierarchy are the process-model assessments of the IPCC AR6, which report two sets of projections. The medium-confidence set is built from processes that can be modeled with confidence, while the low-confidence set admits ice sheet processes such as marine ice cliff instability along with expert judgment. In SPECTRUM, the value $p(S1)$ scales between these confidence intervals. Referenced to the AR6 1995–2014 baseline, which sits 1.2 cm above the year-2000 baseline used above, our slow-WAIS forecast gives 0.48 [0.37, 0.64] m at 2 °C, 0.65 [0.52, 0.83] m at 3 °C, and 0.85 [0.70, 1.04] m at 4 °C, against AR6 medium-confidence medians of 0.44, 0.56, and 0.68 m. Our medians run 10 to 25% above those values rather than the 39 to 46% of the full forecast, and our upper bound stays inside

the AR6 range. Our fast-WAIS forecast tracks the low-confidence projections, which AR6 provides for SSP1-2.6, SSP2-4.5, and SSP5-8.5. At 3 °C our median of 0.78 m and 95th percentile of 1.72 m sit above the low-confidence values of 0.57 and 1.18 m, while at 5 °C our 95th percentile of 2.08 m falls below theirs of 2.28 m. Most of the difference between our forecast and AR6 is therefore a difference in the weight given to rapid WAIS mass loss, not in the temperature-sensitive components.

4.2 Orthogonal dimensions of sea-level risk

The first risk dimension is sensitive to emissions reduction. The temperature-dependent components are sensitive to changes in global mean surface temperature. Here, we calibrate the sensitivities using decades of observations. Their collective contribution shifts systematically across warming trajectories and is reducible by emissions cuts (Fig. 10a). Under the ‘slow WAIS’ scenario, the 90% credible interval of the forecast spans 27 cm at 2 °C, 30 cm at 3 °C, and 34 cm at 4 °C, three to four times narrower than the full forecast that admits rapid mass loss from WAIS driven by internal feedbacks (Fig. 9). Emissions policy becomes the primary lever for managing risk in that world. Moving from 2 °C to 4 °C adds 37 cm of rise, exposing 62 million more people to coastal flood risks and adding US\$50B/yr in coastal adaptation costs.

The second risk dimension is relatively insensitive to emissions reductions. WAIS dynamics accounts for virtually all of the total forecast variance and is largely decoupled from the emission pathway. The tail of the forecast distribution—the outcomes that drive the most severe human and economic consequences—is controlled almost entirely by whether WAIS retreat remains gradual at modern loss trends or transitions to a more rapid, irreversible retreat. In this case, emissions reduction decreases the median but does not substantively change the tail of the distribution. The probability of exceeding 2 m relative to pre-industrial is 3% under the 2 °C trajectory and 6% under 4 °C, with a scenario-averaged probability of 4.6%. The 3% lower bound on this range highlights the fact that emission reductions alone cannot retire the high risk outcomes.

The risks and costs to coastal communities helps to highlight the dichotomy between the two possible scenarios of fast vs slow WAIS mass loss, or equivalently, emissions-insensitive vs emissions sensitive (Figs. 9 and 10a). The difference at the 5% exceedance probability, one possible design threshold for coastal adaptation (Fig. 9b), is 0.89 m of sea-level rise by 2100 under the current policy warming trajectory (3 °C). This difference translates into roughly 168M more people exposed to annual flood risks, US\$120B/yr in coastal adaptation, and US\$12.2T/yr (~11% global GDP per year) in coastal flood damages without further adaptation. These numbers reflect global population densities, with the highest densities near coastlines, and the fact that the locations of coastal communities and infrastructure are calibrated to lower sea levels. For intuition, the fast-WAIS scenario at 5% exceedance implies nearly eight times more sea level rise in the next 75 years than was experienced in the past 125 years, while the slow-WAIS scenario implies a factor of 3.9 more rise.

Resolving the question of WAIS mass loss rates is among the most financially consequential goals in modern science (Fig. 10c). A value-of-information analysis shows that perfect knowledge of whether WAIS will lose mass slowly or rapidly is worth of order US\$5T in avoided costs. That figure is the maximum over the range of prior confidence in slow WAIS

mass loss, reached at 70% confidence for information arriving today; at the $p(S1) = 90\%$ case adopted here the value is US\$3.9T. The value decays with delay because late-arriving information leaves fewer years of decisions to improve. These numbers frame the research investment question in concrete terms: even partial reduction of WAIS uncertainty, well short of perfect knowledge, would justify annual research expenditures orders of magnitude above current levels. The return on that investment is determined by how quickly the observations can narrow the range of WAIS outcomes, which depends on both the rate of data collection and the development of reliable process models, like those used in the IPCC, capable of providing explanatory insights that underscore deep understanding of ice sheets and climate.

Our forecast identifies a single measurement that would do more to reduce sea-level uncertainty than any other: the rate of West Antarctic ice loss over the next two decades. If WAIS mass loss continues near current rates through the 2030s and 2040s, that would build the case for the slow-WAIS scenario in the 21st century because the observational timespan would approximate the forecast horizon. These observations would allow the forecast to narrow toward the predictable, lower, emissions-sensitive range where adaptation costs are more manageable. If instead grounding-line retreat accelerates beyond the pace of our central scenario, the distribution would shift toward higher outcomes and 1.5–2 m of rise would move from a tail risk to a planning baseline. Either outcome would reshape coastal adaptation worldwide and would justify investment well beyond current levels. The observations needed to distinguish these futures can be made within a generation, but only if the observing systems and research programs are sustained and expanded at a scale that reflects the costs at stake.

Scientific research is a necessary condition for providing actionable information for coastal adaptation, but it is as likely as not that further research will add to the growing evidence to support rapid WAIS mass loss rather than build confidence in a slow-WAIS future (*Fricker et al.*, 2025). Sustaining a wide range of uncertainties that admit ≤ 0.80 m and ≥ 1.92 m of GMSLR in 2100 at 5% probabilities, will force decisions on coastal planning, adaptation, and managed retreat that impact millions of lives and cost billions of dollars to be made under large uncertainties. The extent of these uncertainties in terms of lives, property, and ecosystems raises the question: Can we take action to increase the potential stability of West Antarctica? How much harm to people and the environment can we prevent? Recently, some research directions have been proposed to answer this question (*MacAyeal et al.*, 2024) with initial models of glacier interventions aimed at stabilizing WAIS show promise (*Meyer et al.*, 2026; *Miller et al.*, 2026). As with any nascent research, there are many unresolved questions about the feasibility, unintended consequences, and governance of these interventions (*Siegert et al.*, 2025). There are risks in intervening to remediate the West Antarctic Ice Sheet and slow its loss and the logistical challenges will undoubtedly be great, but these risks and challenges must be weighed against the risks and challenges of sea-level rise as described in this study. There is no zero risk, zero cost response to sea level rise. The costs and challenges are real and must be borne regardless of what decisions are made. The questions are how much cost, how much challenge, and how much harm. The answers hinge on how fast West Antarctica will lose ice, and nothing short of a virtual guarantee in slow WAIS mass loss provides comfort for the world’s coastlines.

5 Conclusions

SPECTRUM forecasts 21st-century sea-level rise from parsimonious physical models of the individual contributors to sea level. We calibrate as many contributors against data as we can and adopt published sensitivities from those we cannot calibrate against independent data sets. Observed global mean sea level is withheld from every component calibration and reserved as a test of the assembled framework. Forced with observed temperatures, the summed components reproduce global mean sea level in hindcast tests, with the model median falling within the uncertainty of the observational reconstructions after 1940, a period spanning about 1 °C of warming. The hindcast rate over 1993–2025 is 3.18 mm yr⁻¹, against 3.17–3.35 mm yr⁻¹ in the observational records. The summed components also reproduce the observed sensitivity of the rate of rise to warming. Because that window is comparable in duration and in warming magnitude to the forecast horizon, the hindcast supports carrying the same confidence forward through 2100 and a further 1–2 °C of warming. That support covers the calibrated components. It does not extend to West Antarctic discharge, which lacks a comparable historical constraint and is carried instead as the scenario mixture.

Driven forward with warming trajectories, the framework projects medians and 90% credible intervals at 2100, relative to the year 2000, of 0.62 [0.45, 1.54] m at 2 °C, 0.79 [0.61, 1.73] m at 3 °C, and 1.00 [0.79, 1.92] m at 4 °C. Referenced to the AR6 baseline, those medians run 39 to 46% above the IPCC AR6 medium-confidence projections (*Fox-Kemper et al.*, 2021).

The uncertainty in these forecasts has two sources. The first is the set of contributors whose temperature sensitivity we calibrated against observations. These account for roughly 1% of the forecast variance and 10 to 20% of the width of the 90% credible interval. Their contribution shifts systematically with warming, and emissions cuts reduce it. The second is the West Antarctic Ice Sheet. It accounts for nearly all of the forecast variance and for 80 to 90% of the width of the 90% credible interval. It responds weakly to the emissions pathway. Holding warming to 2 °C rather than 4 °C lowers the median by 0.38 m but moves the probability of exceeding 2 m only from 6% to 3%. Emissions policy sets how much rise is likely. West Antarctica sets how bad the worst case gets.

The two sources differ in what they cost and in what can be done about them. Every centimeter of rise from either source exposes roughly 1.6 million more people to annual coastal flooding, and about 90% of them live in low- and middle-income countries (*Kulp and Strauss*, 2019; *Jongman et al.*, 2012). Resolving whether West Antarctica loses mass slowly or rapidly is worth on the order of US\$5T in avoided adaptation costs. That value is largest when confidence in a slow-WAIS future reaches 70% and when the answer arrives early enough to shape infrastructure decisions. The answer will come from the rate of West Antarctic ice loss over the next two decades. Emissions cuts limit how far sea level rises. Sustained observation of West Antarctica tells coastal communities how much rise to prepare for. Neither retires the tail. Whether anything can, through intervention aimed at slowing West Antarctic ice loss, is an open research question (*MacAyeal et al.*, 2024; *Meyer et al.*, 2026; *Miller et al.*, 2026) carrying unresolved problems of feasibility, unintended consequences, and governance (*Siegert et al.*, 2025). Those risks are to be weighed against the risks quantified here. There is no zero-risk, zero-cost response to sea-level rise.

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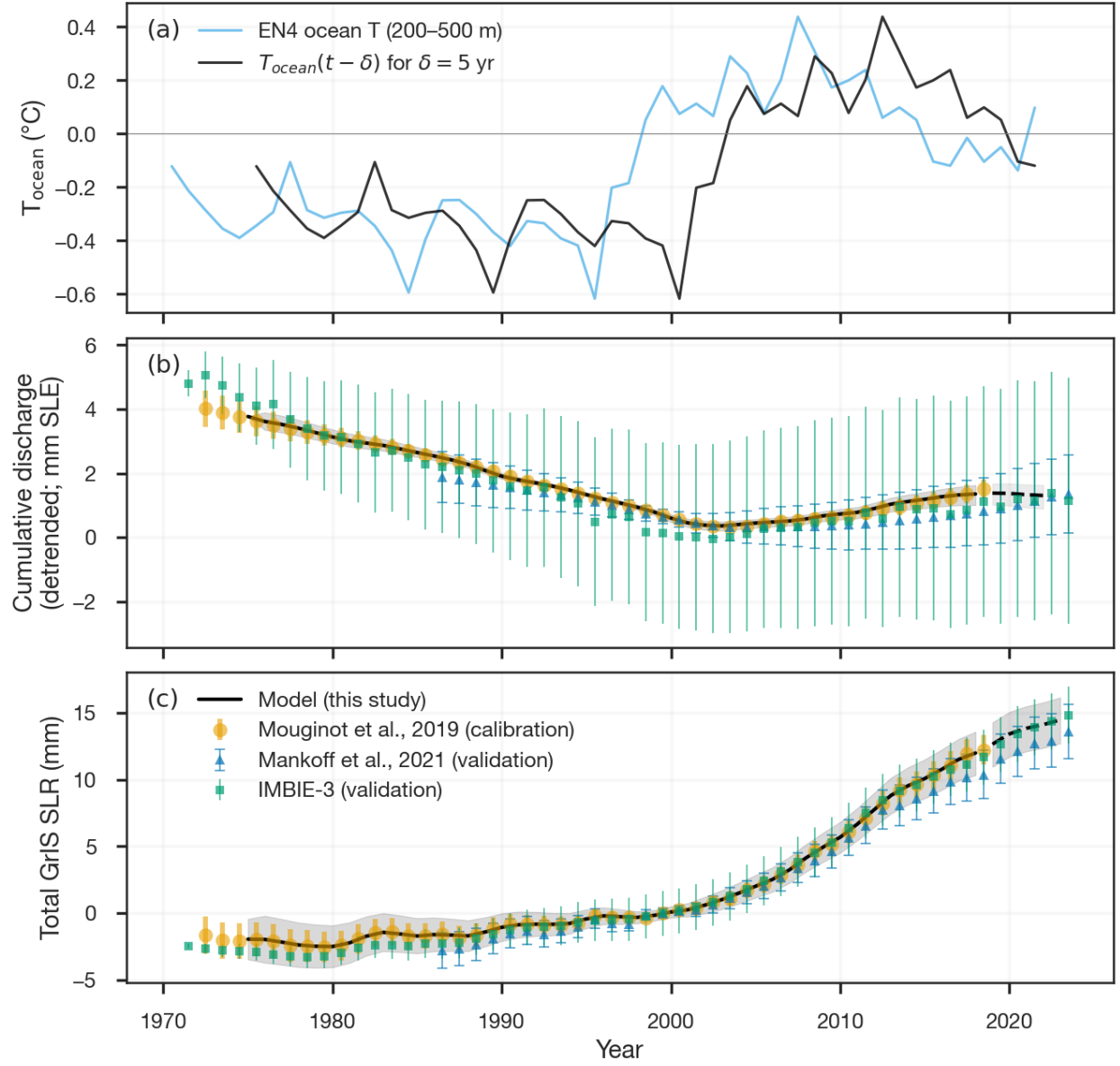


Figure 1: **Greenland discharge delay model fit.** (a) EN4 subsurface ocean temperature (200–500 m, annual) and the delayed signal $T_{\text{ocean}}(t - \delta)$ with $\delta = 5$ yr. (b) Detrended cumulative Greenland ice discharge showing model fit (black) with 90% posterior CI, compared with the calibration data (*Mouginot et al.*, 2019) (orange) and the time-series of *Mankoff et al.* (2021) (blue) and IMBIE-3 (*Otosaka et al.*, 2026) (green) used for validation. (c) Total Greenland mass balance (SMB + discharge), compared against the same three observational datasets.

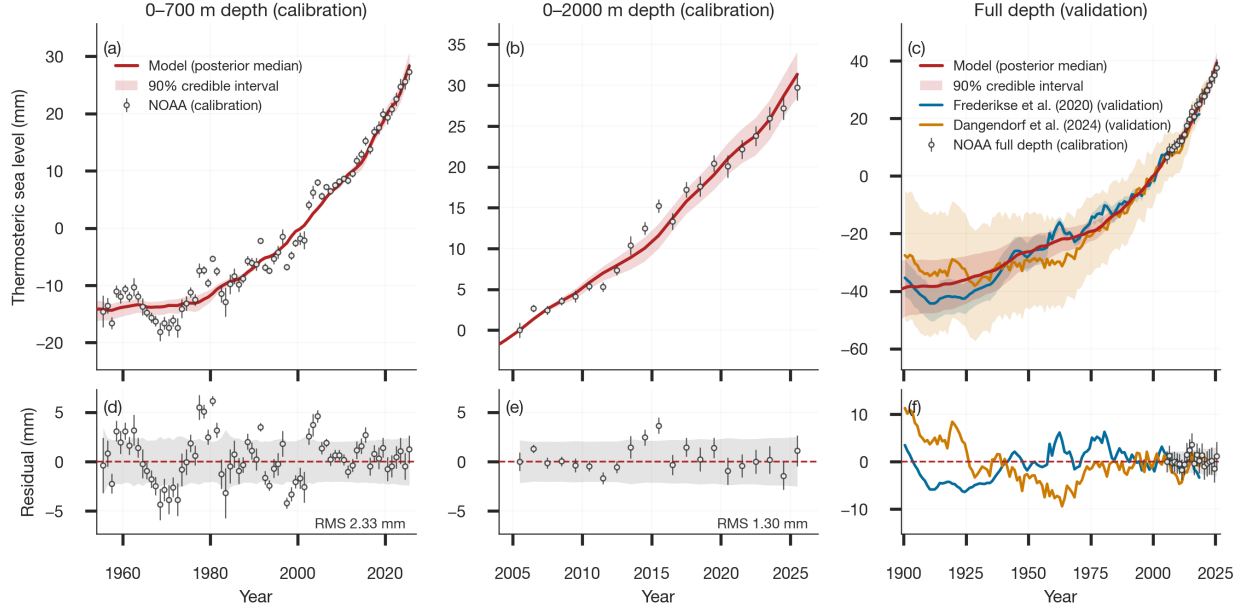


Figure 2: **Two-layer thermosteric model: fit and validation.** (a) Posterior median of the upper layer model H_u (Eq. 8) and 90% credible interval fitted to NOAA 0–700 m observations (circles with error bars). (b) As in (a), for the 0–2000 m record and H_{ud} (Eq. 11). (c) Validation of the full-depth model H_{full} (Eq. 12) against the *Frederikse et al.* (2020) (blue) and *Dangendorf et al.* (2024) (orange) reconstructions of global-mean steric sea level, both withheld from calibration. Also shown for reference are the NOAA-derived full-depth values (circles). (d–f) Residuals corresponding to (a)–(c), with the gray band showing the 90% credible interval on the residual and the RMS residual reported in each calibration panel. RMS values relative to *Frederikse et al.* (2020) are 2.6 mm over 1957–2018 and 3.8 mm before 1957; relative to *Dangendorf et al.* (2024) they are 3.5 mm over 1957–2021 and 5.0 mm before 1957. Over 1957–2018 the *Frederikse et al.* (2020) reconstruction draws on the same in situ profile archive as the NOAA calibration record, including the NOAA product itself; its pre-1957 segment, and the *Dangendorf et al.* (2024) reconstruction throughout, take no in situ ocean temperature or salinity as input.

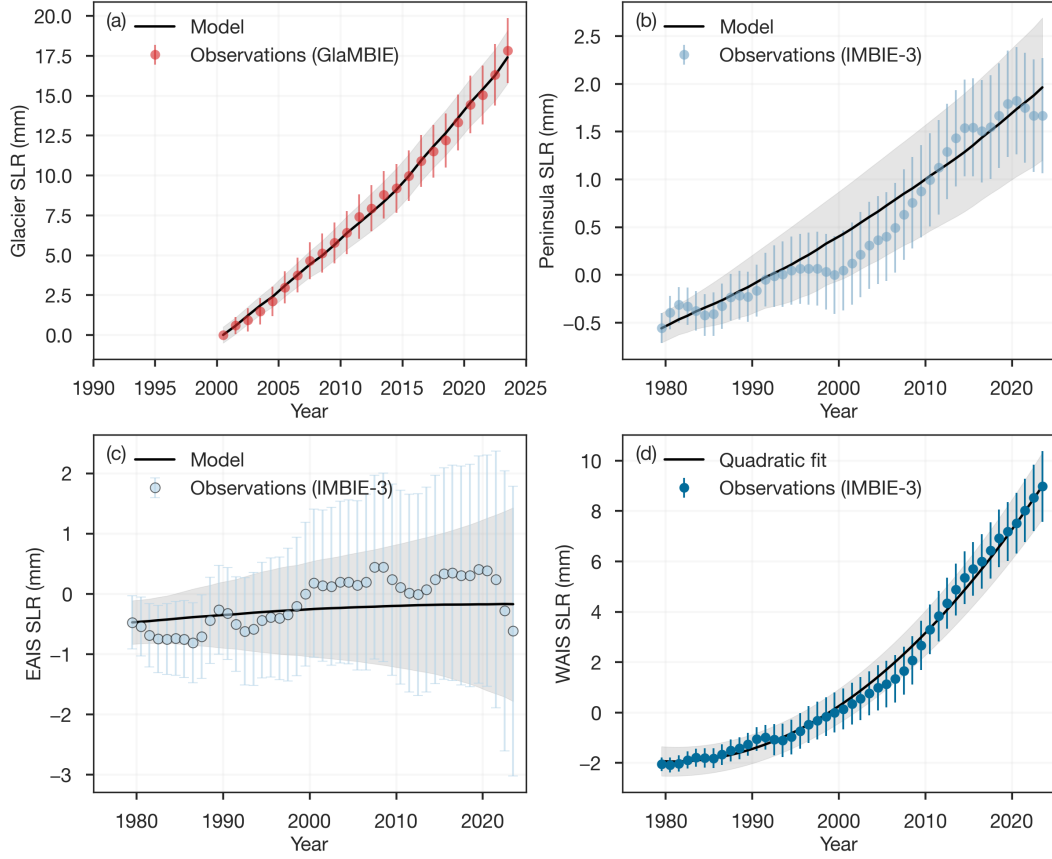


Figure 3: **Per-component calibration fits.** (a) Glaciers, (b) Antarctic Peninsula, and (c) EAIS observed mass balance (circles with ± 2 standard deviation error bars) with the respective posterior median rate-temperature models (black lines) and 90% credible interval (gray shading). (d) WAIS mass balance is shown with the quadratic-in-time model (black line) and 90% credible interval (gray shading). Data are from *The GlaMBIE Team et al.* (2025) for glaciers and *Otosaka et al.* (2026) for the ice sheets.

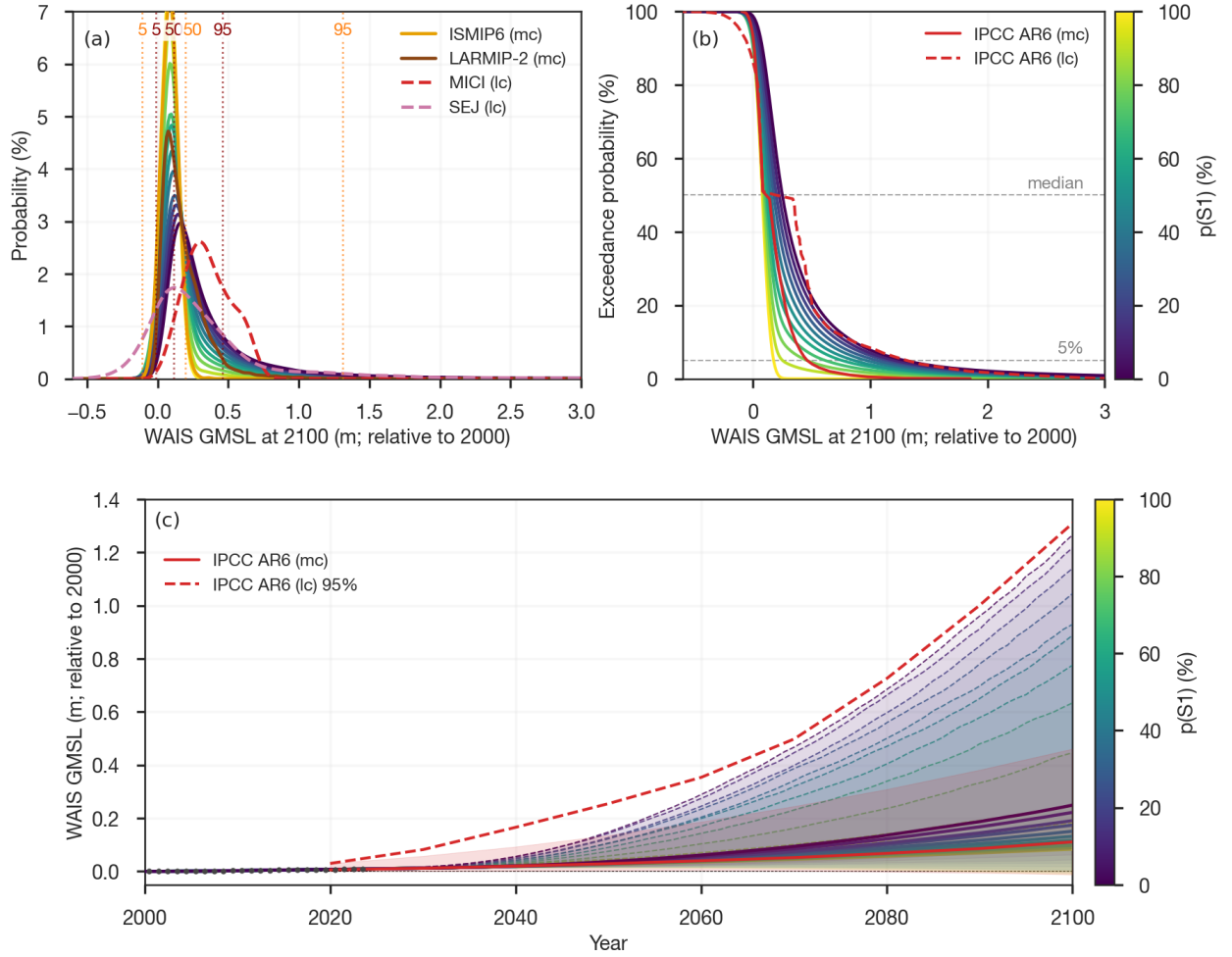


Figure 4: **Sensitivity of the WAIS 2100 sea-level contribution to the S1/S2 scenario-mixture weight.** (a) Probability density of the WAIS contribution to GMSL at 2100 (relative to 2000) for an 11-member sweep of the mixture weight $p(S1)$ from 0% (Scenario 2) to 100% (Scenario 1), colored by weight (colorbar in **b**). Also shown are the constituent IPCC AR6 total-Antarctic-Ice-Sheet workflow ensembles underlying the medium-confidence (mc, ISMIP6 emulator (Edwards et al., 2021) and LARMIP-2 ensemble (Levermann et al., 2020)) and low-confidence (lc) assessments. The low-confidence assessments are identified as Marine Ice Cliff Instability (MICI) (DeConto and Pollard, 2016) and structured expert judgement (SEJ) (Bamber et al., 2019). Dotted vertical lines mark the 5th, 50th, and 95th percentiles of the medium- (red) and low- (orange) confidence AR6 p-boxes. (b) Corresponding exceedance probability curves for the same $p(S1)$ sweep, with the IPCC AR6 medium for 3 °C (SSP2-4.5; red solid line) and low-confidence SSP5-8.5 (red dashed line) exceedance curves for the Antarctic Ice Sheet overlaid for reference. (c) Time-series for the $p(S1)$ sweep and the IPCC AR6 medium SSP2-4.5 (red solid line with 90% CI shading) and low-confidence SSP5-8.5 95th percentile (red dashed line). The thin dashed lines show the 95th percentile for the correspondingly colored $p(S1)$.

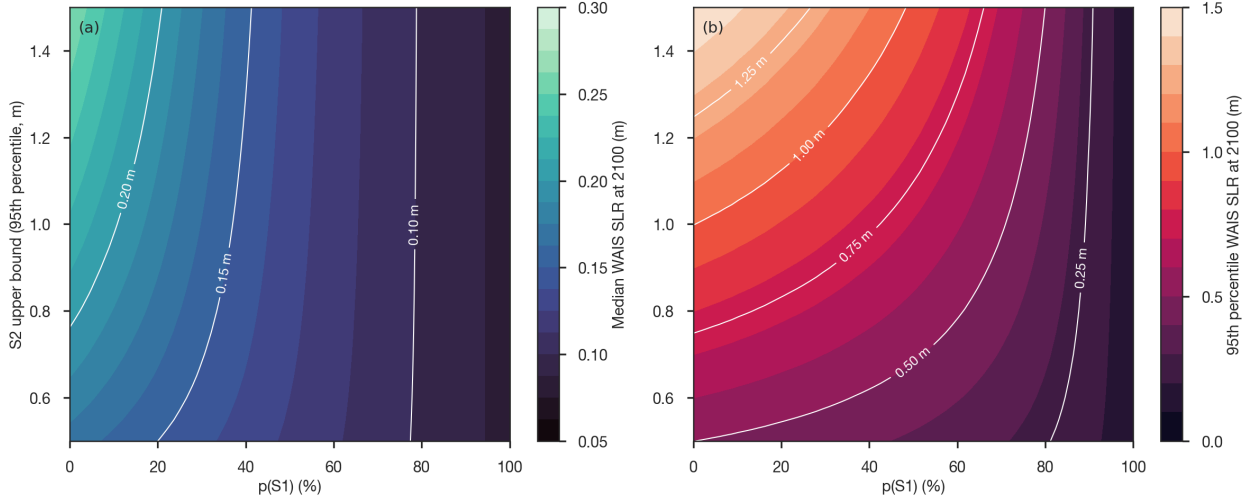


Figure 5: **WAIS contribution to GMSL at 2100 as a function of the two mixture parameters.** (a) Median and (b) 95th percentile of the S1/S2 mixture (relative to 2000) across the S1 probability, $p(S1)$, and the S2 upper bound (95th percentile of S2 at 2100).

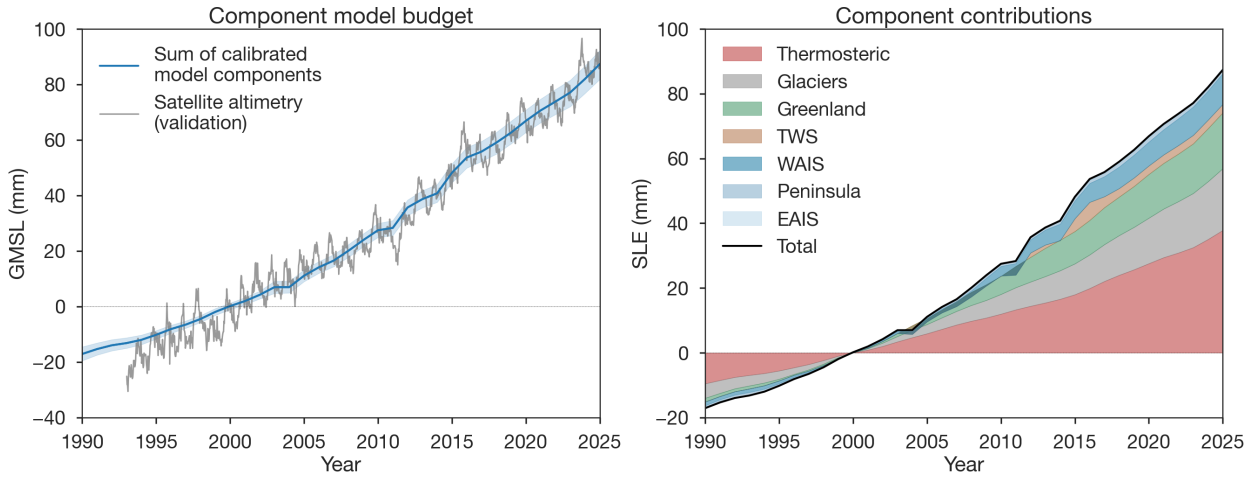


Figure 6: **Budget closure: sum of model components versus observed GMSL.** (a) Sum of components (blue) and NASA satellite altimetry (grey) with shaded band showing the 90% confidence intervals (*Beckley et al., 2017; Hamlington et al., 2020*). (b) Stacked per-component contributions and their sum in black. Terrestrial water storage enters only from 2003, the start of the GRACE record from which it is derived.

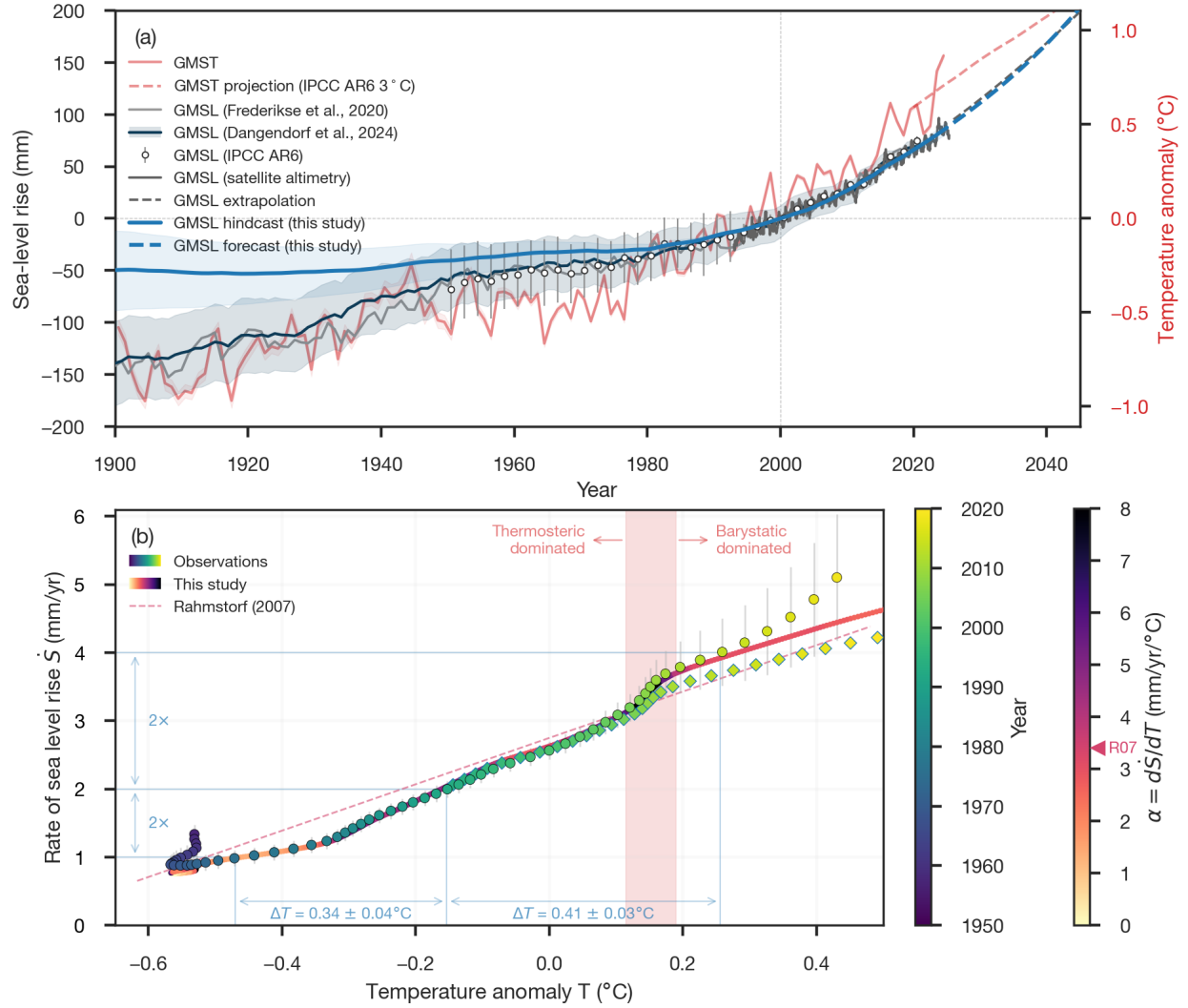


Figure 7: **Observed global mean sea-level rise and global mean surface temperature.** (a) GMSL reconstructions from *Frederikse et al.* (2020) (light grey) and *Dangendorf et al.* (2024) (navy, with 90% CI shading), the IPCC AR6 observational compilation (*Fox-Kemper et al.*, 2021) (white circles with 90% CI bars), and NASA satellite altimetry (*Beckley et al.*, 2017) (mid grey, with its quadratic extrapolation dashed) show sea level rising with warming. The hindcast and forecast of this study are shown in blue, solid and dashed respectively, with 90% CI shading. GMST (red; (*Rohde and Hausfather*, 2020)) is referenced to the right hand axis. (b) Rate of GMSL rise ($\dot{S} = dGMSL/dt$) versus GMST anomaly, T . Observed values are shown in circles (*Frederikse et al.*, 2020) and diamonds (*Beckley et al.*, 2017), colored by year, and the component model of this study is a line colored by instantaneous transient sensitivity $\alpha = d\dot{S}/dT$. The Rahmstorf (2007) semi-empirical model is shown in a color corresponding to its α value (*Rahmstorf*, 2007). The vertical red band indicates the shift in the primary contributor from ocean thermal expansion to changes in glacier ice and water storage (barystatic). The sinuous tail in the early observations is largely due to dam impoundment of water rather than a thermodynamic signal (*Frederikse et al.*, 2020).

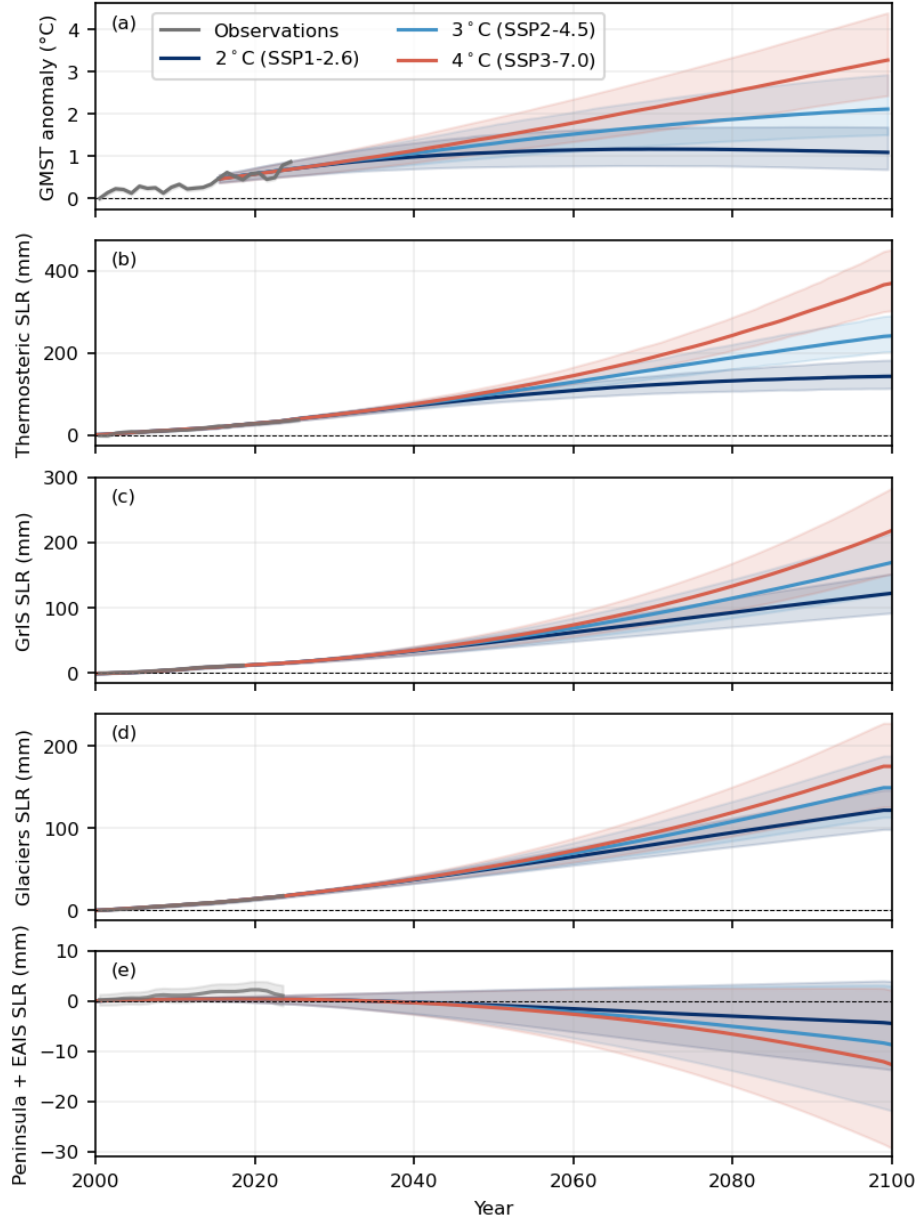


Figure 8: **Component-level forecasts under three emissions scenarios.** (a) Observed global mean surface temperature (GMST) anomaly (grey) relative to 2000, with SSP1-2.6, SSP2-4.5, and SSP3-7.0 projections (IPCC AR6) and their 90% CI (5–95th percentile, shaded). The SSP projections are labeled in the legend by their median 2100 anomaly relative to pre-industrial temperatures to provide both pre-industrial and 21st century base-lines. (b) Thermosteric sea-level contribution with observations (grey) and forecast median with 90% CI from the full depth model driven by the corresponding GMST trajectory. (c) Greenland Ice Sheet (GrIS), (d) glaciers, and (e) the sum of Antarctic Peninsula and EAIS following the same convention as in (b).

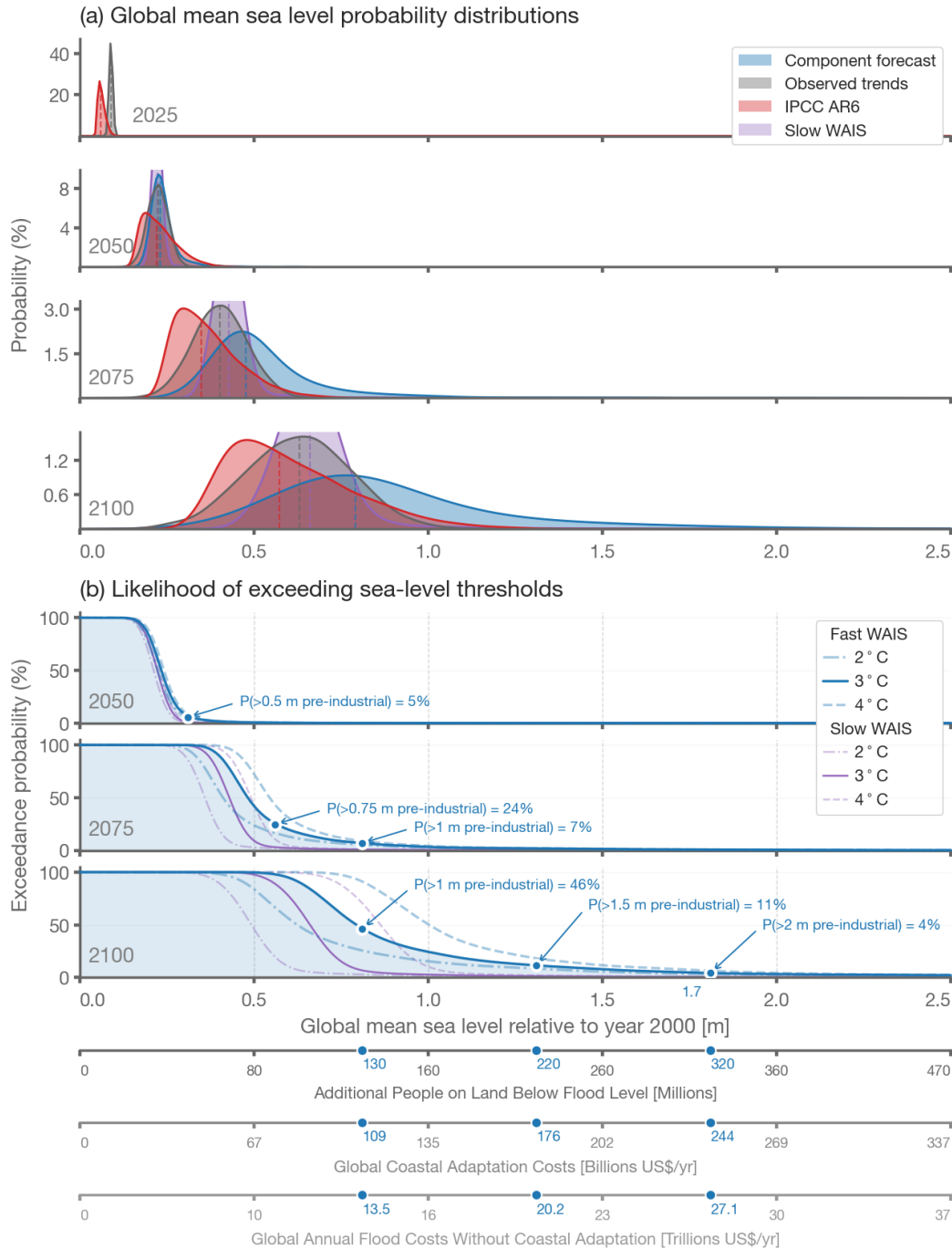


Figure 9: **Global mean sea-level probabilities.** (a) Probability distributions for different forecasting approaches and the IPCC AR6 projections. The ‘slow WAIS’ scenario (purple, clipped for figure clarity) makes continued mass loss along the observed trajectory very likely ($p(S1) = 90\%$) while the component forecast (blue curve) makes accelerated WAIS mass loss very likely ($p(S1) = 10\%$). Vertical dashed lines indicate the respective medians. (b) Probability of exceeding a given sea-level threshold for different warming trajectories including the WAIS scenario mixture model that allows for fast mass loss (blue) and the slow WAIS scenario (purple). Lower axes show estimates of the corresponding number of people currently living on land that will be below flood level (*Kulp and Strauss, 2019*) and financial costs (*Tiggeloven et al., 2020; Jevrejeva et al., 2018*) (Supplementary Material).

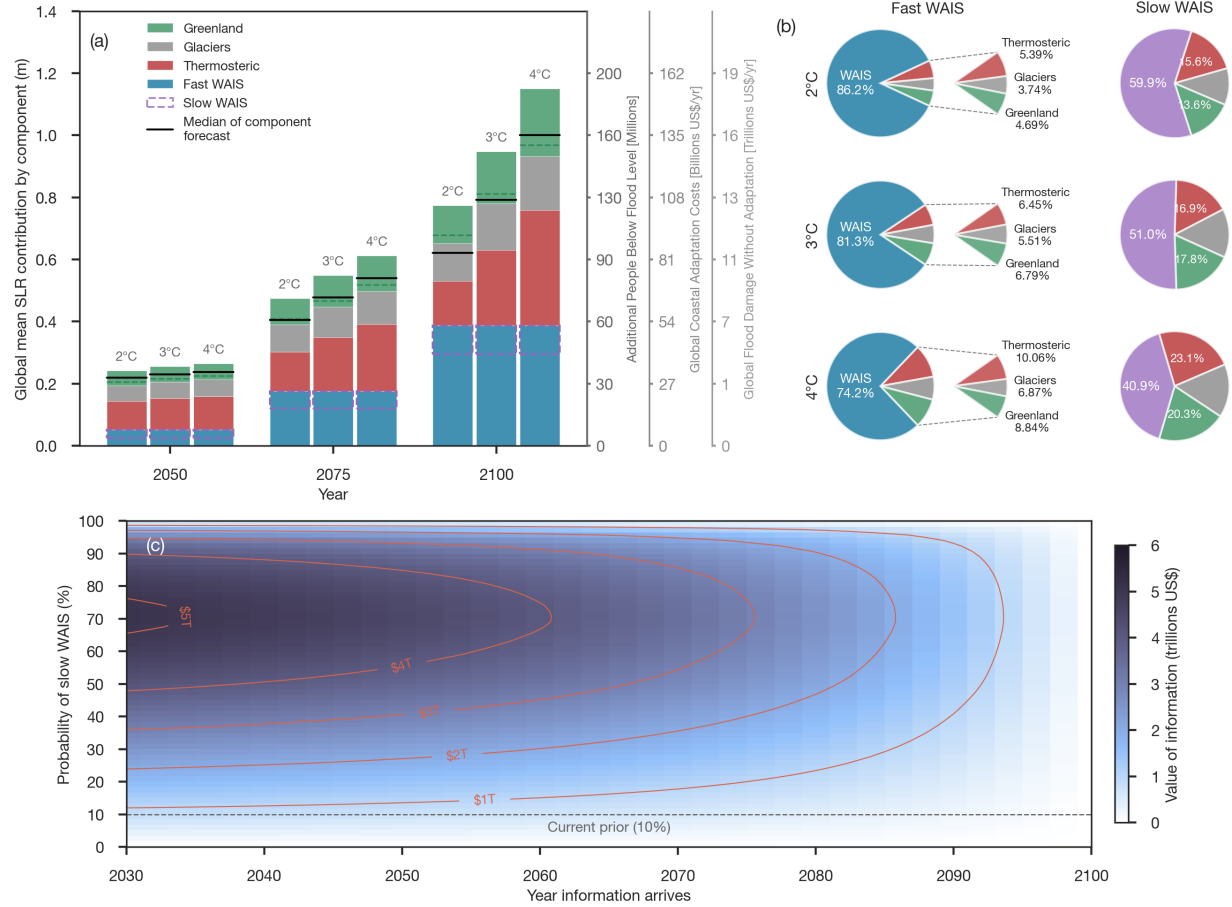


Figure 10: Component contributions, variance decomposition, and value of information. (a) 21st century mean GMSLR contribution by component and respective societal costs. Green dashed lines within Greenland bars partition discharge anomaly (below) from SMB anomaly (above). The purple box shows the WAIS contribution where slow mass loss is very likely, while the rest of the blue bar shows the potential SLR from rapid ice loss. (b) Shares of the 90% credible interval at 2100, taken as each component's own interval width as a fraction of the summed widths. WAIS accounts for 74 to 86% of that interval, and for approximately 99% of the total forecast variance, when rapid ice loss is possible. Fan breakouts show the non-WAIS contributions. Where slow mass loss is very likely (right column), the warming-sensitive components set 40 to 59% of the interval (c) Financial value of resolving WAIS uncertainty as a function of when information arrives. Contours and colormap in trillions US\$ based on coastal adaptation costs (Supplemental Material). The plot shows that information has more value if it arrives early enough to inform key decisions and if it provides sufficient confidence that WAIS will lose mass slowly, allowing planning around lower future sea levels.